

Abstract

The next generation of gravitational-wave (GW) observatories, Laser Interferometer Space Antenna (LISA) and the Einstein Telescope (ET), will jointly probe compact objects with masses ranging from a few to $\sim 10^7 M_\odot$ over the frequency interval extending from 10^{-4} to 10^4 Hz. This unprecedented observational window makes it essential to identify promising GW sources, investigate their formation channels, and characterize the physical properties of the emitted signals. Among the most compelling candidates are binaries hosting intermediate-mass black holes (IMBHs), whose inspiral GW emission would offer unique insights into this still poorly constrained population of massive black holes (MBHs). Empirical scaling relations suggest that IMBHs preferentially reside in the nuclei of low-mass and dwarf galaxies. Unlike their massive counterparts, these systems display a wide variety of structural and kinematical properties, potentially giving rise to quite different evolutionary pathways toward binary coalescence. This thesis investigates the dynamical evolution of IMBH binaries embedded in stellar environments, with particular emphasis on the coalescence timescale and the time evolution of the binary separation and eccentricity. To this end, both the Quinlan–Sesana hybrid model and Ketju direct N-body simulations are employed. While the former approach provides an efficient framework for reconstructing the evolution of BH binaries once the stellar background properties and the binary initial conditions are specified, the Ketju module, implemented into GADGET-4, models SMBHs and stars as point particles during close encounters through an algorithmically regularized integrator, thereby accurately capturing the orbital decay driven by stellar scattering with unprecedented spatial resolution. The analysis explores different stellar backgrounds, including nucleated dwarf galaxies and observationally motivated high-redshift stellar clumps and galaxy models with enhanced stellar densities resulting from cosmic size evolution. The results confirm that IMBH binaries embedded in nucleated dwarf galaxies can merge within a few Myr. More remarkably, they show that even non-nucleated high-redshift galaxies may drive binary coalescence within a Hubble time, identifying these systems as promising sources of detectable gravitational waves. Finally, the reconstructed binary evolution is finally exploited to compute the associated GW signals, providing observational predictions for the LISA and Einstein Telescope era.

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INTRODUCTION

Massive black holes play a fundamental role in the formation and evolution of galaxies. Observations have established that they are ubiquitously found at the centers of nearby galaxies (Kormendy and Richstone 1995), while tight empirical correlations between their masses and the properties of the host galactic bulges suggest a close co-evolution of black holes and galaxies (Magorrian et al. 1998). MBHs are believed to be common in galaxy centres at all cosmic epochs; a piece of evidence for their existence, from low to high redshift, comes from the transient activity of galactic nuclei (AGN) over the hosts lifetime (see, e.g., Jahnke (2025)).

Black holes (BHs) span a wide range of masses ($\sim 10 - 10^9 M_\odot$) and various formation models have been proposed based on their mass. At the two extremes of the black-hole mass spectrum lie stellar-mass black holes and supermassive black holes (SMBHs). Stellar evolution theory predicts that stellar-mass BHs may be the remnants of massive stars with either Zero Age Main Sequence mass $M_{ZAMS} \lesssim 140 M_\odot$ or $M_{ZAMS} \gtrsim 260 M_\odot$; otherwise, they undergo fully disruption and end their life as Pair Instability Super Novae (Farmer et al. 2019). In recent years, the properties of this population have been significantly constrained through the detection of gravitational waves from merging compact binaries (Abbott et al. 2016), as well as by advances in microlensing techniques capable of identifying isolated BH candidates (Bennett et al. 2002). On the opposite side ($\sim 10^6 - 10^9 M_\odot$), instead, Pulsar timing arrays has already probed the upper mass range of SMBHs population (Taylor 2021), whose most accepted formation model interpret them as the final stage of a secular accretion onto initially lighter black hole seeds (see, e.g., Peterson (1997)).

While substantial progress has been made in detecting and characterizing both stellar-mass BHs and SMBHs, the observational confirmation and detailed investigation of intermediate-mass black holes (IMBHs), spanning the mass range $\sim 10^2 - 10^5 M_\odot$, remain significantly more challenging. Although an increasing number of candidates have been identified in the local Universe, particularly in dwarf galaxies, through accretion signatures (see, e.g., Reines et al. (2013)), their sphere of influence—conventionally defined as the sphere enclosing a stellar mass equal to twice that of the central BH (Sesana and Khan 2015), within which the BH gravitational potential dominates—is typically too small for reliable stellar or gas dynamical measurements, especially at higher redshift. Nevertheless, the discovery of high-redshift quasars (see, e.g., Bañados et al. (2018)) points to the existence of BH seeds with masses comparable to those of IMBHs already in the early Universe and motivates the common practice of inferring the presence of IMBHs by extrapolating the empirical correlation between BH mass and the stellar bulge mass of the host galaxy (Schutte et al. 2019).

Figure 1 illustrates three distinct theoretical pathways for IMBH formation, highlighting the number of BHs expected to form through each channel, their corresponding mass ranges, and the redshift range over which each formation mechanism is expected to be most efficient. Each formation channel proceeds as follows (Greene et al. 2020):

Pop III. Sufficiently massive primordial stars, commonly referred to as Population III (Pop III) stars, may possess enough gravitational binding energy to withstand the energy released during the photodisintegration-induced collapse of their cores, ultimately leading to the formation of a BH remnant (Fryer et al. 2001).

Direct collapse. At high redshift, metal-free gas clouds may undergo nearly monolithic gravitational collapse without significant fragmentation, in contrast to what is typically observed in the present-day Universe, owing to the inefficient cooling of neutral hydrogen and lead to the formation of IMBHs (Lodato and Natarajan 2006).

Gravitational runaway. Runaway stellar collisions in high-density clusters may trigger a sequence of stellar mergers, progressively producing more massive stars that can undergo further collisions. The final product of this repeated merger process may eventually collapse into an IMBH (see, e.g., Rodriguez et al. (2019); Devecchi and Volonteri (2009)).

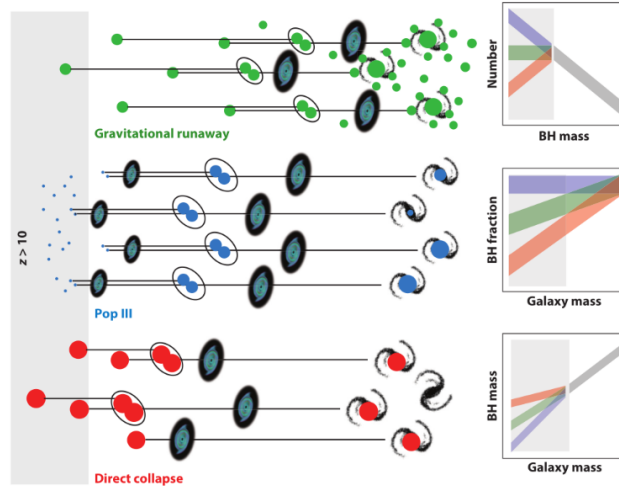


Figure 1: Schematic representation of different BH seeding channels, from their formation and subsequent growth through mergers and accretion to the present day: Pop III stars (blue), direct collapse (red), and gravitational runaway (green). The corresponding present-day BH mass functions, occupation fractions, and BH–galaxy scaling relations are shown on the right. Picture from Greene et al. (2020).

Within the framework of the hierarchical growth scenario of galaxies (White and Rees 1978), the formation of IMBH binaries is expected to occur naturally as a consequence of mergers between their host stellar systems (Maiolino et al. 2024). These systems are among the most powerful sources of gravitational waves (GWs) in the Universe (Maggiore 2007), making them prime targets for current and future GW observatories. In particular, the upcoming Laser Interferometer Space Antenna (LISA), a joint ESA/NASA space mission, will probe the low-frequency GW regime, from $\sim 10^{-4}$ to $\sim 10^{-1}$ Hz (Amaro-Seoane, Audley, et al. 2017; Amaro-Seoane, Andrews, et al. 2023), providing access to compact-object binaries with masses of $\sim 10^4 - 10^7, M_{\odot}$ and enabling the detection of their mergers out to redshift $z \sim 20$ (Colpi et al. 2024). At higher frequencies, the ground-based Einstein Telescope (ET) will complement LISA by extending the accessible frequency and mass ranges towards lower-mass systems, being expected to detect IMBH binaries with masses of $\sim 10^2 - 10^3, M_{\odot}$ out to redshifts of a few (Abac et al. 2026).

This thesis work aims to investigate the evolution of the main orbital parameters of IMBH binaries, focusing on the semimajor axis a and eccentricity e , and to assess how the BH masses,

properties of the stellar background, and initial binary conditions, i.e. (a_0, e_0) , affect their dynamical evolution and coalescence time through a series of numerical experiments. To this end, different stellar environments hosting the binary—or the individual unbound IMBHs—are considered, with dwarf galaxies representing the first candidate systems.

Although the merger rate of such low-mass galaxies is not yet well constrained, the growing evidence of the existence at high redshifts of such candidates (Kikuchihara et al. 2020) rises the possibility of detecting GWs from merging IMBH binaries if coalescence occurs within the Hubble time.

According to the findings of (Khan, Javed, et al. 2024), the low central stellar density of non-nucleated dwarfs leads to inefficient hardening and, ultimately, to binary stalling. However, the vast majority of galaxies with stellar masses of $10^8 - 10^{11} M_\odot$ host a nuclear star cluster (NSC), an exceptionally dense and dynamically distinct stellar component in their innermost regions (see, e.g., Neumayer et al. (2020)). The presence of such a dense environment within dwarf galaxies, as reported, e.g., by Nguyen et al. (2018), has been confirmed to substantially shorten the coalescence time of an IMBH pair.

Having established the key role of stellar scattering, and hence of the stellar density at the binary influence radius, the time evolution of the IMBH binary separation and eccentricity, $a(t)$ and $e(t)$, is then obtained by numerically integrating their evolution while artificially placing present-day non-nucleated dwarf galaxies at higher redshifts, following the cosmic size evolution law inferred by Ono et al. (2023).

Then stellar clumps because:

1) Observation and numerical experiments The emergence of x-ray signatures from Globular Clusters (GCs), combined with the Gebhardt et al. (2005)

2) Observation of high z stellar clumps Nakane et al. (2026)

plot di Eros

e plot di Maiolino et al. (2024) per Mbh vs Mstar

the study combines a self-consistent hybrid model developed by Quinlan (1996) and extended by Sesana (2010) with N-body simulations performed using the KETJU module (Mannerkoski et al. 2023), implemented into GADGET-4. which will be described in more detail later. These powerful tools, that will be properly discussed in chapter 2 and chapter 3, enable to

N-body numerical experiments have proved different stellar backgrounds give rise to different pathways to the possible coalescence of MBHBs (see, e.g. Khan and Holley-Bockelmann (2021); Khan, Javed, et al. (2024)). Therefore, in this work, evolutionary tracks of BH binaries are reconstructed by considering different host models, motivated by observational evidences or strong indications from numerical simulations.

Among them, in this work have been considered: dwarf galaxies

between galaxies. . .

Despite,

The structure of this thesis is outlined as follows.

In chapter 1, we provide a brief overview of the main physical mechanisms responsible for the BH binary shrinking; this includes violent relaxation, dynamical friction, stellar scattering from low-angular momentum stars and GWs emission.

In chapter 2, we introduce the self-consistent hybrid model developed by Quinlan (1996) and Sesana (2010), hence showing the obtained evolutionary tracks related to a sample of adopted host galaxies and discussing the parameters space in order to emphasise how different environmental and initial conditions lead to different binary evolution.

In chapter 3 we describe the main features of the codes used to generate N-body initial condition and N-body numerical simulations and compare the obtained binary evolutionary tracks with those of the previous chapter.

Finally, the main results of this work are summarized, and possible future improvements are

reported in the concluding chapter.

PHYSICAL MECHANISMS OF BINARY HARDENING

In the "bottom-up" scenario, where low-mass structures form earlier and more massive ones assembly later through clustering and mergers, MBHs binaries are belived to form due to galaxy mergers. Various and different physical mechanisms are involved and in competition from the pairing to the final coalescence. This chapter aims at resuming the main aspects of these processes, listing them in chronological order by significance.

It begins by addressing dynamical friction, effective down to the formation of a gravitationally bound pair, and by providing dynamical friction timescales for stellar environments of astrophysical interest. Then, the main features of the gravitational slinghot will be discussed, as it rules the binary hardening via stellar ejection, along with the importance of loss-cone refilling in driving the system toward the inspiral phase.

The chapter ends with a derivation of the key equations describing the binary's time evolution once it enters the gravitational-wave-dominated phase, leading to its final coalescence.

1.1 Galaxy Merger and Violent Relaxation

When two galaxies interact with sufficiently low relative velocity and small impact parameter, we classify this event as binary galaxy merger. Galaxy mergers can be classified according to the physical properties of the involved systems. Of particular interest for our purposes are the so-called dissipationless, or dry, mergers, involving gas-poor galaxies, in which radiative energy losses are negligible and the total energy is approximately conserved.

Numerical N-body experiments have proved that when galaxies of comparable masses collide—giving rise to the so-called major mergers—they usually leave behind a single, virialized remnant as end-product of this encounter (REFERENCE). This stage is achieved through a series of relaxation processes that drive the initially out-of-equilibrium system, consisting of two colliding galaxies, toward a new equilibrium configuration.

A simple order of magnitude estimate of the violent relaxation time can be obtained if one is capable of making some predictions about the outcome of the galaxy merger. In this sense, some indications on virial velocity dispersion σ_v and the virial radius r_v of the resulting galaxy can be derived; for an isolated galaxy of mass M , total kinetic T and total gravitational energy U , they are defined as

$$\sigma_v^2 = \frac{2T}{M}, \quad r_v = -\frac{GM^2}{U}. \quad (1.1)$$

Let us consider two galaxies of mass M_i and energy $E_i = T_i + U_i$ each; an ideal dissipationless merger between them, where both the total mass and energy are conserved, will produce a remnant having mass $M = M_1 + M_2$ and energy $E = E_1 + E_2 + E_{orb}$, with E_{orb} accounting for the ordered kinetic energy of the pair and the mutual gravitational energy. By combining the virial theorem and the energy conservation equation, it is straightforward to prove that

$$\sigma^2 = \frac{M_1\sigma_{v,1}^2 + M_2\sigma_{v,2}^2 - 2E_{orb}}{M_1 + M_2} \quad (1.2)$$

and

$$\frac{(M_1 + M_2)^2}{r_v} = \frac{M_1^2}{r_{v,1}} + \frac{M_2^2}{r_{v,2}} - \frac{2E_{orb}}{G}. \quad (1.3)$$

By looking at Equation (1.2) and (1.3), one concludes that for equal-mass parabolic encounters, the ones that have been taken into account in order to analyze MBHBs pairing and orbital decay, $M = 2M_1$, $r_v = 2r_{v,1}$ and $\sigma_v = \sigma_{v,1}$, since $E_{orb} = 0$ and $M_1 = M_2$.

Therefore, the remnant galaxy formed as a consequence of an head-on collision between two identical galaxies at rest when they are at infinite relative separation will lose its memory about after a time

While two-body relaxation operates on a too much long timescale for the galaxy remnant to become collisional within the Hubble time t_H , violent relaxation plays a central role in redistributing the energy, converting the ordered orbital kinetic energy into disordered internal energy (Lynden-Bell 1967).

In general, during galactic encounters, two main distinct mechanisms are at work in shaping the formation and subsequent evolution of the post-merged galaxy: violent relaxation and dynamical friction. The former arises from rapidly changing gravitational fields, such as those of a newly formed galaxies, and results particles heating. The latter, instead, actes on massive particles, e.g. MBHs, slowing them down and pushing the heaviest objects towards the newly formed galactic center (CIOTTI BOOK).

We start our discussion by introducing the concept of violent relaxation time T_r . According to the physical origin of this phenomenon, the first step in this direction is proving that the energy ϵ_* of a star, moving under the action of the gravitational potential $\psi(\mathbf{x}, t)$, can change

if and only if the latter varies itself with time. If we impose $\psi(\mathbf{x}, t)$ to vanish at infinity, then the expression of the energy for a star of mass m_* and velocity $\mathbf{v}$ becomes

$$\epsilon_* = \frac{1}{2}m_*v^2 + m_*\psi(\mathbf{x}, t) \quad (1.4)$$

and by differentiating with respect to the time both sides one obtains

$$\frac{d\epsilon_*}{dt} = m_* \left[\mathbf{v} \cdot \dot{\mathbf{v}} + \nabla\psi \cdot \mathbf{v} + \frac{\partial\psi}{\partial t} \right]. \quad (1.5)$$

Since $\dot{\mathbf{v}} = -\nabla\psi$, the previous identity reduces to

$$\frac{d\epsilon}{dt} = \frac{\partial\psi}{\partial t}, \quad (1.6)$$

where $\epsilon = \epsilon_*/m_*$ denotes the stellar energy per unit mass.

Equation (1.6) shows that individual stars continuously gain and lose orbital energy due to a rapidly evolving gravitational field. Therefore, T_r can be naturally defined as the timescale over which the change in the energy of a typical star becomes comparable to its initial value, i.e.

$$T_r = \left\langle \frac{(d\epsilon/dt)^2}{\epsilon^2} \right\rangle^{-1/2} = \left\langle \frac{(\partial\psi/\partial t)^2}{\epsilon^2} \right\rangle^{-1/2}. \quad (1.7)$$

At the beginning of the merger, the single galaxies are virialized, thus in equilibrium condition, and obey to

$$2 \sum_{i=1}^N \frac{1}{2} m_i v_i^2 - \frac{1}{2} \sum_{i=1}^N \sum_{j \neq i} \frac{G m_i m_j}{|\mathbf{x}_i - \mathbf{x}_j|} = 2K + W = 0 \quad \forall t \quad (1.8)$$

in their barycentric inertial reference system S_{CM} each, with K and W standing for the total kinetic and gravitational potential energy of the galaxy respectively. However, once the collision takes place, the resulting galaxy has not reached the equilibrium yet as there is still some remaining ordered kinetic energy that needs to be converted first. To quantitatively characterize the level of virialization of any system evolving towards equilibrium, it is usefull to introduce the so-called virial ratio

$$Q \equiv \frac{2K}{|W|}. \quad (1.9)$$

Figure 1.1, and particularly the green curves, illustrates how the virial ratio Q oscillates about its equilibrium value, $Q=1$, while the amplitude of these oscillations rapidly decreases with time. This behaviour, observed in numerical N-body simulations of galaxy mergers, indicates that the system undergoes most of its virialization process in the vicinity of the equilibrium state toward which it evolves.

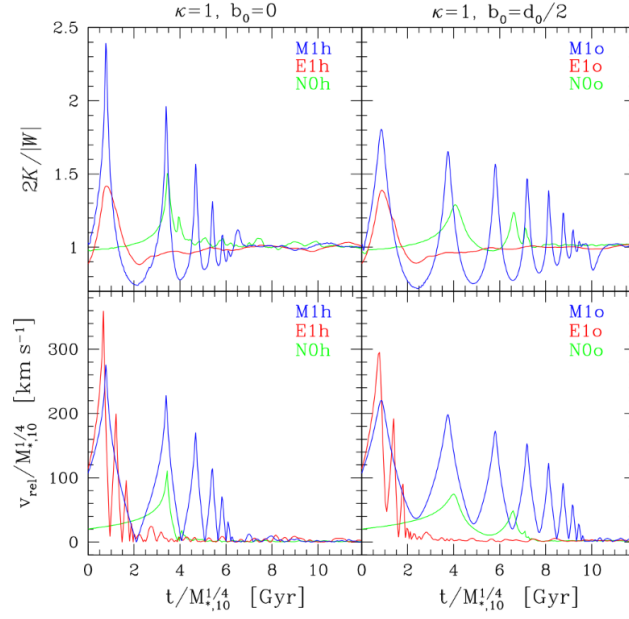


Figure 1.1: Time evolution of the virial ratio (top panels) and of the barycentric relative speed (bottom panels) for the two sets of galaxy merger simulations: head-on (left panels) and off-centre (right panels). Blue, red, and green curves refer to MOND, equivalent Newtonian, and purely baryonic Newtonian simulations, respectively. Picture from Nipoti et al. (2007).

Therefore, during the virialization process, both K and W undergo oscillations about their equilibrium values. Consequently, Equation (1.8) is no longer satisfied at every instant; rather, the system obeys the time-dependent virial theorem,

$$\frac{1}{2}\ddot{I} = 2K + W, \quad (1.10)$$

where I denotes the polar moment of inertia. In this regime, $\ddot{I}$ remains small but non-zero, quantifying the departure from virial equilibrium. Owing to Equation (1.8), the mean star undergoes corresponding variations in its kinetic and gravitational potential energies, maintaining the approximate relation

$$\frac{1}{2}m_*v^2 \sim -\frac{1}{4}m_*\psi \quad (1.11)$$

By plugging Equation (1.11) into Equation (1.4), we obtain the following equivalent expression for the violent relaxation time

$$T_r \equiv \frac{3}{4} \left\langle \frac{\psi^2}{\dot{\psi}^2} \right\rangle^{-1/2}. \quad (1.12)$$

Since the polar moment of inertia scales with the total mass M_* of the system and the square of its instantaneous characteristic radius $R_*(t)$, it can be written as

$$I(t) = \lambda^2 M_* R_*^2(t) \quad (1.13)$$

where λ^2 is a dimensionless structural parameter expected to be of order unity.

Let the system undergo small radial perturbations about its virial equilibrium configuration. Specifically, we write the instantaneous characteristic radius as

$$R_*(t) \approx r_v + \delta R_* \quad (1.14)$$

where r_v is the gravitational radius,

$$r_v = -\frac{GM_*^2}{U}, \quad (1.15)$$

and $|\delta R_*| \ll r_v$. Linearizing Equation (1.8) with respect to the perturbation then yields the equation of a simple harmonic oscillator,

$$2\lambda^2 r_v \delta \ddot{R}_* - \frac{GM}{r_v^2} \delta R_*, \quad (1.16)$$

with angular frequency

$$\omega = \left(\frac{GM}{2\lambda^2 R_0^3} \right)^{1/2} = (2\pi G \bar{\rho})^{1/2}, \quad (1.17)$$

in which is introduced the galaxy mean density $\bar{\rho} = 3M_*/(4\pi r_v^3)$. Yet, as the gravitational potential $\psi \sim 1/r$, it varies on exactly the same timescale as the radius, i.e. $\dot{\psi} \sim \omega \psi$, leading to

$$T_r \simeq \frac{3}{4\omega}. \quad (1.18)$$

EXAMPLE

1.2 Two-Body Relaxation and Dynamical Friction

Let us begin with deriving the two-body relaxation time, hereafter t_{2b} , beyond which gravitational encounters alter stellar trajectories driven by the potential generated by $\rho(r)$, proxy of the real distribution of stars. Thus, systems whose age does not exceed the associated two-body relaxation time, i.e. $t_{age} < t_{2b}$, will be referred to as collisionless, otherwise we talk about collisional systems and granularity will be important.

Chandrasekhar (1943) approach provides an estimate of t_{2b} by considering cumulative orbital deflections under the Impulsive Approximation. It consists of the following two assumptions:

1. All stellar encounters are independent of the others. Therefore, multiple interactions are suppressed.
2. The gravitational influence of the remaining $N - 2$ stars is neglected, resulting in hyperbolic two-body encounters only.

The first tool we need to introduce in order to deal with this treatment, but will be used in the next Sections as well, is the one-particle phase-space distribution function (DF) $f(\mathbf{x}_f, \mathbf{v}_f, t)$ of the field stars, which depends on the star position $\mathbf{x}_f$, velocity $\mathbf{v}_f$ and time. provides the probability density of finding a particle at point $((\mathbf{x}_f, \mathbf{v}_f))$ of the phase-space at time t . By definition, the stellar density is thus

$$\rho(\mathbf{x}_f, t) = \int_{\mathcal{R}^3} d^3\mathbf{v}_f f(\mathbf{x}_f, \mathbf{v}_f, t). \quad (1.19)$$

Under the simplifying assumption of a spatially homogeneous distribution and an isotropic velocity field, the degrees of freedom (d.o.f.) are reduced, and the distribution function can be expressed as

$$f(\mathbf{x}_f, \mathbf{v}_f) = n_f g(v_f); \quad (1.20)$$

hence, the DF has become the product of the position-independent number density and probability density function g in the velocity space

Two-body encounters between the test particle m_t and the field star m_f will induce change in some orbital property P . The cumulative effect of two-body encounters leads to a time variation of P , which is quantified by the diffusion coefficient $D(P)$; the Impulsive Approximation enables us to write it as

$$D(P) \equiv 2\pi n_f \int_{\mathcal{R}^3} d^3\mathbf{v}_f \|\mathbf{v}_t - \mathbf{v}_f\| g(v_f) \int_0^\infty db \langle P \rangle b, \quad (1.21)$$

where $\langle P \rangle$ indicates the angle average and b the impact parameter.

A usefull indicator of changes in the stellar trajectories may be the orbital property $P = \Delta \mathbf{v}_{t\perp}$, that is the component of the test particle velocity variation perpendicular to the initial relative velocity. However, under the assumption of isotropy, the first-order diffusion coefficients in the velocity components vanish (**binney_2011**). Therefore, at higher order, the quantity $P = \|\Delta v_{t\perp}\|^2$ becomes the relevant orbital parameter for determining t_{2b} at leading order. Taking advantage of the Born aproximation of small angle scattering, holding for small deflection angles,

$$\|\Delta v_{t\perp}\| \simeq \frac{2Gm_f}{vb} \quad (1.22)$$

and plugging it into Equation (1.21) returns

$$D(\|\Delta v_{t\perp}\|^2) \simeq 8\pi G^2 m_f^2 n_f \int_{\mathcal{R}^3} d^3 \mathbf{v}_f \frac{g(v_f)}{v} \int_0^\infty \frac{db}{b}. \quad (1.23)$$

Two logarithmic divergences arise from the integral over b : the so-called ultraviolet divergence at $b = 0$, due to the Born approximation, and the infrared divergence at $b = +\infty$ because of the used model, i.e. an infinite and homogeneous system. Nevertheless, Adopting $b_{\pi/2}$ as lower limit and introducing a fiducial upper limit b_{max} , that we expect to exist due to the finite size of real stellar systems, it follows

$$D(\|\Delta \mathbf{v}_{t\perp}\|^2) \sim 8\pi G^2 n_f m_f^2 \int_{\mathbb{R}^3} \frac{g(v_f) \ln \Lambda}{v} d^3 \mathbf{v}_f, \quad (1.24)$$

where $\ln(\Lambda) = \ln(b_{max}/b_{\pi/2})$, is the so called Coulomb logarithm. Although it depends on the velocity field, through the impact parameter $b_{\pi/2}$ corresponding to a deflection angle of $\pi/2$, it can be defined the velocity-weighted Coulomb logarithm $\ln(\bar{\Lambda})$ so that

$$\int_{\mathbb{R}^3} \frac{g(v_f) \ln \Lambda}{\|\mathbf{v}_t - \mathbf{v}_f\|} d^3 \mathbf{v}_f \equiv \Psi(v_t) \ln \bar{\Lambda}, \quad (1.25)$$

with

$$\Psi(v_t) = \int_{\mathcal{R}^3} \frac{g(v_f)}{\|\mathbf{v}_t - \mathbf{v}_f\|} d^3 \mathbf{v}_f, \quad (1.26)$$

being the Rosenbluth potential. One of the greatest simplifications brung by isotropy consist of the possibility to express $\Psi(v_t)$ as

$$\Psi(v_t) = \int_{\mathbb{R}^3} \frac{g(v_f)}{\|\mathbf{v}_t - \mathbf{v}_f\|} d^3 \mathbf{v}_f \equiv \frac{\Xi(v_t)}{v_t} + 4\pi \int_{v_t}^\infty g(v_f) v_f dv_f, \quad (1.27)$$

where

$$\Xi(v_t) = 4\pi \int_0^{v_t} g(v_f) v_f^2 dv_f, \quad \Xi(\infty) = 1 \quad (1.28)$$

is a normalized function by virtue of the $g(v_f)$ function normalization.

In the high velocity limit, the monopole term of Equation (1.27) is the dominant to the leading order and

$$t_{2b} \equiv \frac{v_t^2(-\infty)}{D(\Delta E_{t\perp})} \sim \frac{v_t^3}{8\pi G^2 n_f m_f^2 \ln \bar{\Lambda}}. \quad (1.29)$$

On one hand, as just seen, two-body encounters give rise to the heating of the test particle in the direction perpendicular to the initial relative velocity, being deflected; on the other hand the same particle is slowed down by Dynamical friction as result of long range interaction Baumgardt et al. 2006.

$$\frac{d\mathbf{v}_t}{dt} = D[\Delta\mathbf{v}_t] = -4\pi G^2 m_t m_f \ln \Lambda \int d^3\mathbf{v}_f f(\mathbf{v}_f) \frac{\mathbf{v}_t - \mathbf{v}_f}{|\mathbf{v}_t - \mathbf{v}_f|^3} \quad (1.30)$$

$$\frac{d\mathbf{v}_t}{dt} = -16\pi^2 G^2 m_t m_f \ln \Lambda \left[\int_0^{v_t} dv_f v_f^2 f(v_f) \right] \frac{\mathbf{v}_t}{v_t^3} \quad (1.31)$$

$$\frac{d\mathbf{v}_t}{dt} = -4\pi \ln \Lambda \left[\operatorname{erf}(X) - \frac{2X}{\sqrt{\pi}} e^{-X^2} \right] \frac{G^2 m_t \rho(r)}{v_c^3} \mathbf{v}_t \quad (1.32)$$

where

$$\operatorname{erf}(X) = \frac{2}{\sqrt{\pi}} \int_0^X dt e^{-t^2} \quad (1.33)$$

$$\frac{d\tilde{L}}{dt} = \tilde{F}r \quad (1.34)$$

with

$$\tilde{L} = m_t \sqrt{G m_f r} \quad \tilde{F} = -C(\Lambda, X) \frac{G^2 m_t^2 \rho(r)}{v_c^2} \quad (1.35)$$

with $C(\Lambda, X)$ implicitly defined by Equation (1.35) and $X \equiv v_c/\sigma\sqrt{2}$

$$r^{-5/2} \frac{dr}{dt} = -C(\Lambda, X(r)) \frac{G^2 m_t^2}{m_f^{3/2}} \rho(r) \quad (1.36)$$

$$\rho(r) = \begin{cases} \rho_{\text{inf}} \left(\frac{r}{r_{\text{inf}}} \right)^{-\gamma} & \text{if } r < r_{\text{inf}} \\ \frac{\sigma^2}{2\pi G r^2} & \text{if } r > r_{\text{inf}} \end{cases} \quad (1.37)$$

$$\rho(r) = \rho_0 \left(\frac{r}{r_0} \right)^\gamma \quad (1.38)$$

If $M_*(r < a_0) = 2M_2$ then

$$a_0 = (3 - \gamma) \frac{GM}{\sigma^2} \left(\frac{q}{1+q} \right)^{\frac{1}{3-\gamma}} = r_{\text{inf}} \left(\frac{q}{1+q} \right)^{\frac{1}{3-\gamma}} \quad (1.39)$$

$$\sigma^2(r) = \frac{v_c^2(r)}{2(\gamma - 1)} \Rightarrow X = \sqrt{\gamma - 1} \quad (1.40)$$

Integrating from r_0 to $r(t)$ leads to

$$r(t) = \begin{cases} \left[r_0^{\gamma-3/2} - C(\Lambda, X) \frac{\sqrt{G} m_t}{m_f^{3/2}} \left(\gamma - \frac{3}{2} \right) \rho_0 r_0^\gamma t \right]^{\frac{1}{\gamma-3/2}} & \text{if } \gamma \neq \frac{3}{2} \\ r_0 \exp \left[-C(\Lambda, X) \frac{\sqrt{G} m_t}{m_f^{3/2}} \rho_0 r_0^{3/2} t \right] & \text{if } \gamma = \frac{3}{2} \end{cases} \quad (1.41)$$

If we define t_{fric} such that $r(t_{\text{fric}}) = a_0$ we get

$$t_{\text{fric}} = \begin{cases} \frac{m_f^{3/2} (r_{\text{inf}}^{\gamma-3/2} - a_0^{\gamma-3/2})}{C(\Lambda, X) \sqrt{G} m_t (\gamma - \frac{3}{2}) \rho_{\text{inf}} r_{\text{inf}}^\gamma (\gamma - 3/2)} & \text{if } \gamma \neq \frac{3}{2} \\ \frac{m_f^{3/2}}{C(\Lambda, X) \sqrt{G} m_t \rho_0 r_0^{3/2}} \ln \left(\frac{r_{\text{inf}}}{a_0} \right) & \text{if } \gamma = \frac{3}{2} \end{cases} \quad (1.42)$$

Being intrinsically inelastic,, give rise to mergers, hosting an MBH binary (see e.g. Baumgardt et al. (2006)).

1.3 Black Hole Binary–Star Three-Body Scattering

When operating during major merger events, the dynamical friction brings both MBHs towards the galactic center of the merger remnant, reducing their separation and eventually causing the BHs to cross other sphere of influence. At the end of this process, beyond which three-body stellar encounters take over the long-range interactions with field stars, they find themselves tied together due to their mutual gravitational attraction and at a relative distance of the order of a_0 , defined as the binary separation at which the enclosed stellar mass is equal to the secondary BH mass M_2 (Baumgardt et al. 2006). Therefore, in this section we report the main theoretical aspects of three-body encounters, as they represent the dominant process promoting the shrinking of the binary and prepare the conditions for the subsequent inspiral phase.

Each time a low angular momentum star, hereafter "loss-cone" star, passes close to the BH binary, an exchange of energy and angular momentum between three bodies takes place. Under suitable conditions, the incoming star is ejected at a higher velocity, carrying away the excess energy extracted from the BH pair and thus promoting its progressive hardening. This process is known as "Slingshot effect" (Mikkola and Valtonen 1992).

Let us focus on the so-called "two-body problem" and some the related results as they will be usefull in dealing with the physics of the stellar slingshot. Given the test and field particles, of masses m_t and m_f respectively and reduced mass μ , the system total energy in the mass center frame S_{CM} turns out to be

$$E = \frac{1}{2}\mu\|\mathbf{v}\|^2 - \frac{Gm_fm_t}{r}, \quad (1.43)$$

where $r(t) \equiv \|\mathbf{x}_t - \mathbf{x}_f\|$ and $\mathbf{v}(t) \equiv \mathbf{v}_t - \mathbf{v}_f$ denote particles relative separation and velocity.

For two unbound particles, moving along hyperbolic orbits in S_{CM} , the energy conservation imposed by Equation (1.43) at two infinity configurations $r(-\infty) = r(+\infty) = +\infty$ returns

$$\|\mathbf{v}(-\infty)\| = \|\mathbf{v}(+\infty)\|. \quad (1.44)$$

According to Equation (1.44), the magnitude of the test particle velocity is conserved in the inertial frame centered on the field particle. Therefore, the encounter results only in a rotation of the velocity vector $\mathbf{v}$ and the corresponding velocity change $\Delta\mathbf{v} = \mathbf{v}(+\infty) - \mathbf{v}(-\infty)$ can be conveniently decomposed as the sum of the components perpendicular and parallel to the initial relative velocity $\mathbf{v}(-\infty)$ as follows

$$\mathbf{v}(+\infty) = \mathbf{v}(-\infty) + \Delta\mathbf{v}_{\parallel} + \Delta\mathbf{v}_{\perp}. \quad (1.45)$$

Plugging this expression for $\mathbf{v}(+\infty)$ into Equation (1.44) allows us to obtain the identity

$$\|\Delta\mathbf{v}_{\parallel}\|^2 + \|\Delta\mathbf{v}_{\perp}\|^2 + \langle\Delta\mathbf{v}_{\parallel}, \mathbf{v}(-\infty)\rangle = 0. \quad (1.46)$$

A first glance at this formula reveals that a necessary condition for it to hold is that the scalar product must be a negative term. This observation will be crucial in assessing whether binary BH-star interaction leads to the shrinking or the softening.

The just derived results correspond to a constraint on particles relative velocity valid in a specific inertial frame. However, one is free to describe the interaction in an arbitrary inertial frame S_0 , where both bodies may be seen moving; hence, a generalization is required.

In S_0 the close encounter causes both E_t and E_f to change, preserving at each time the validity of energy conservation equation of the system. Between the two configurations at infinite relative separation, the test particle experience a net variation of mechanical energy

$$\Delta E_t = \frac{1}{2}m_t[\|\mathbf{v}_t(+\infty)\|^2 - \|\mathbf{v}_t(-\infty)\|^2] = -\Delta E_f, \quad (1.47)$$

which is perfectly compensated by the variation of the field particle mechanical energy, that is

$$\Delta E = \Delta E_t + \Delta E_f = 0. \quad (1.48)$$

By combining the velocity composition law

$$\mathbf{v}_t(t) = \mathbf{v}_{\text{CM}} + \frac{\mu}{m_t} \mathbf{v}(t) \quad (1.49)$$

and the conservation of the mass center velocity vector $\mathbf{v}_{\text{CM}}$, valid for isolated systems, Equation (1.47) takes the form (Ciotti_2021)

$$\Delta E_t = \mu \langle \Delta \mathbf{v}, \mathbf{v}_{\text{CM}} \rangle. \quad (1.50)$$

We are now in a position to address three-body scattering involving a gravitationally bound BH binary and an incoming star. The dynamics of this encounter can be understood by considering the limiting case of strongly asymmetric binary in which $M_1 \gg M_2 \gg m_*$ so that both the star and the secondary BH, having masses m_* and M_2 , can travel along nearly Keplerian orbits around M_1 with slightly different radii and, consequently, possess slightly different Keplerian velocities. The secondary BH acts as the field particle, while the star plays the role of the test particle. The primary BH serves only to establish the relative velocity between the two bodies. As a result, the center of mass motion of this gravitationally unbound pair is essentially determined by the orbit of M_2 around M_1 . Therefore, the approximation

$$\mathbf{x}_{\text{CM}} \simeq \mathbf{x}_f, \quad \mathbf{v}_{\text{CM}} \simeq \mathbf{v}_f, \quad (1.51)$$

applies and the mass center will move locally at constant velocity if the observation time is short compared to the orbital period, thus making negligible its acceleration.

Hereafter, by analogy with the previous notation, we identify $M_2 \equiv m_f$ and $m_* \equiv m_t$.

Binary hardening. When the star is placed outside the secondary BH orbit, the Keplerian velocity profile imposes $\|\mathbf{v}_f(-\infty)\| = \|\mathbf{v}_{\text{CM}}\| > \|\mathbf{v}_t(-\infty)\|$. Therefore, at point where m_f surpasses m_t and they are both located on the same radius, $\mathbf{v}(-\infty)$ is nearly antiparallel to $\mathbf{v}_{\text{CM}}$ and $\Delta \mathbf{v}_{\parallel}$ can be read as the projected vector along $\mathbf{v}_{\text{CM}}$ rather than $\mathbf{v}(-\infty)$. Taking advantage of Equation (1.46), it follows that

$$0 < \langle \Delta \mathbf{v}_{\parallel}, \mathbf{v}_{\text{CM}} \rangle = \langle \Delta \mathbf{v}, \mathbf{v}_{\text{CM}} \rangle = \Delta E_t / \mu. \quad (1.52)$$

Equation (1.52) shows that in the reference system centered on M_1 the star gains orbital energy and is scattered onto a wider orbit. On the other hand, the secondary BH experiences an equal and opposite change in orbital energy, leading to a reduction of the binary separation and, consequently, to binary hardening.

It is worth noticing that if $\Delta E_t > |E_t(-\infty)|$, which occurs at very high circular velocity of the binary BHs, stellar ejection occurs; in this regime “hypervelocity stars” (HVSs) travelling along nearly radial orbits are produced (Sesana, Haardt, et al. 2006).

Binary softening. Contrary to the previous case, binary softening takes place when the star is placed inside the secondary BH orbit. Now $\mathbf{v}(-\infty)$ is nearly parallel to $\mathbf{v}_{\text{CM}}$ at the crossover point and by repeating the same arguments used above it is found

$$E_t / \mu = \langle \Delta \mathbf{v}, \mathbf{v}_{\text{CM}} \rangle = \langle \Delta \mathbf{v}_{\parallel}, \mathbf{v}_{\text{CM}} \rangle < 0. \quad (1.53)$$

On one hand the star loses energy to the binary, it is pushed inward and may undergo tidal disruption due to primary BH (Lightman and Shapiro 1977); on the other hand the binary gains energy and its semimajor axis increases, resulting in binary softening.

Although our discussion has so far focused on a specific three-body scattering configuration, the results can be readily generalized by observing that the distinction between binary hardening and softening is determined by the relative magnitude of the BH binary's orbital velocity and the velocity of the incoming loss-cone star.

The binary BH embedded in an isotropic stellar background with constant velocity dispersion σ is expected to undergo three-body scatterings with loss-cone stars that will approach the galactic centre where the binary lives with velocity of the order of σ . Because the specific binding energy of a keplerian with total mass $M = M_1 + M_2$, reduced mass μ and semimajor axis a is

$$E_b = \frac{G\mu}{2a} \quad (1.54)$$

and the specific energy of the loss-cone star is of the order of σ^2 , the velocity criterion can be conveniently reformulated in terms of the specific energy. When $E_b \ll \sigma^2$, the binary is said to be soft, and repeated stellar encounters tend to further decrease its binding energy. Conversely, when $E_b \gg \sigma^2$, the binary is hard, and stellar encounters, on average, increase its binding energy. This behavior is well summarized by Heggie's law (Heggie 1975).

Heggie's law. – *On average, hard binaries get harder and soft binaries get softer.*

By extrapolation of the two limiting cases, one can define the "hardening radius" a_h as the binary separation at which binary passes from the soft to the hard regime. Despite its expected weak dependence on the BH mass ratio, throughout this work we adopt the definition proposed by Quinlan (1996), unless otherwise specified:

$$a_h = \frac{GM_2}{4\sigma^2}. \quad (1.55)$$

At this stage, it should be clear that stellar scattering plays a fundamental role in driving the binary toward the regime in which GWs emission dominates its evolution. Nevertheless, one may wonder how a binary can evolve from the soft to the hard regime. The key point is that most of the work for this evolution to continue in the the direction of binary hardening is done by dynamical friction with the stellar background rather than individual encounters, as explained in Section 1.2.

1.4 Stellar Scattering and Loss Cone Problem

In § 1.3 we have been concerned in describing the physics of three-body scattering, pointing out its relevance to the orbital decay of the BH binary. In the following Section, instead, we will be explaining which stars can effectively exchange energy and angular momentum with the binary, the rate at which these close encounters take place and how all of this enters the self consistent model for MBHBs evolution by Quinlan (1996) and Sesana (2010) that will be presented in the next Chapter.

Let $a(t)$ be the binary semimajor axis. Numerical experiments demonstrated that only stars intersecting the binary orbit can efficiently extract energy and angular momentum from when ejected at higher velocity (Mikkola and Valtonen 1992). This class of stars of the stellar background populates the so-called "binary loss cone" and comprises both low-energy stars and high-energy, low-angular momentum stars. Under the assumption of Keplerian orbits, the former have small mean radius ($\langle r \rangle < a$) and specific energy $E_* < -GM/a$, while latter spend most of their orbital period $P(E_*)$ far from the binary but a close encounter can occur at the pericenter r_P if $r_P < a$.

The size J_{lc} of the binary loss in the specific angular momentum space, hereafter J-space, is a

function of E_* ; at the configuration of closest approach, the star radial velocity vanishes and the specific energy in terms of r_P is

$$E_* = \frac{J^2}{2r_P^2} - \frac{GM}{r_P} \quad (1.56)$$

From Equation (1.56) follows that the minimum value of J , below which the star enters the binary loss cone, is

$$J_{lc}(E_*) \equiv \left[2 \left(E_* + \frac{GM}{a} \right) \right]^{1/2} a \quad (1.57)$$

and can be approximated to $\sim \sqrt{2GMa}$ as the vast majority of stars orbit far from the binary and have a specific angular energy $|E_*| \ll GM/a$.

Stars of fixed specific energy E_* , other than a minimum of the specific angular momentum $J_{min} = J_{lc}(E_*)$, possess a maximum set by the chain of inequalities

$$E_* \geq \frac{J^2}{2r^2} - \frac{GM}{r} \equiv V_{eff}(r) \geq V_{eff,min} = -\frac{GM}{2J^2}, \quad (1.58)$$

which holds because of the non-negative behavior of the radial kinetic term. This constrain poses a limit to J , i.e.

$$J_{max}(E_*) = \frac{GM}{\sqrt{2|E_*|}}, \quad (1.59)$$

corresponding to the specific angular momentum of a circular orbit of specific energy E_* (Capozziello and De Laurentis 2008). Once the binary has removed in a dynamical time $P(E_*)$ the stars inside the influence sphere, the further hardening of the binary via stellar slingshot relies on the rate at which the loss cone is fed by stellar diffusion in both energy and angular momentum space, which causes stars to enter the loss cone. This diffusion arises from stellar encounters that have been proven to be efficient in exchanging angular momentum and results in a Random Walk in J-space. Let us define j_2 the rms angular momentum transferred in one orbital period and $J_{max}(E_*)$ the same quantity associated with the timescale t_{2b} , only stars with $J_{lc} \leq J \leq J_{lc} + j_2$ can penetrate into the loss cone over one orbital period. The mechanism of loss cone replenishing and the associated timescale are set by the dimensionless quantity

$$q(E) \equiv \frac{j_2^2}{J_{min}^2}. \quad (1.60)$$

Taking Figure 1.2 as a reference, $q(E_*)$ enables us to distinguish between two extreme scenarios:

Empty Loss Cone. This condition is represented by picture on the left in Figure 1.2(b).

When $q(E_*) \ll 1$ the RW step size is very small compared to the loss cone size, making the process ascribable to a diffusion problem with timescale t_{2b} . Therefore, stars are removed from the loss cone faster than the rate at which it is fed, hence, remaining nearly empty.

Full Loss Cone. This condition is represented by the picture on the right in Figure 1.2(b). The loss cone is smaller than the RW step size and even high J stars can be scattered into the loss cone by many, weak stellar encounters taking place during one orbital period. Thus, the rate at which loss cone stars are expelled is lower than the rate of refilling, causing the loss cone to remain almost full.

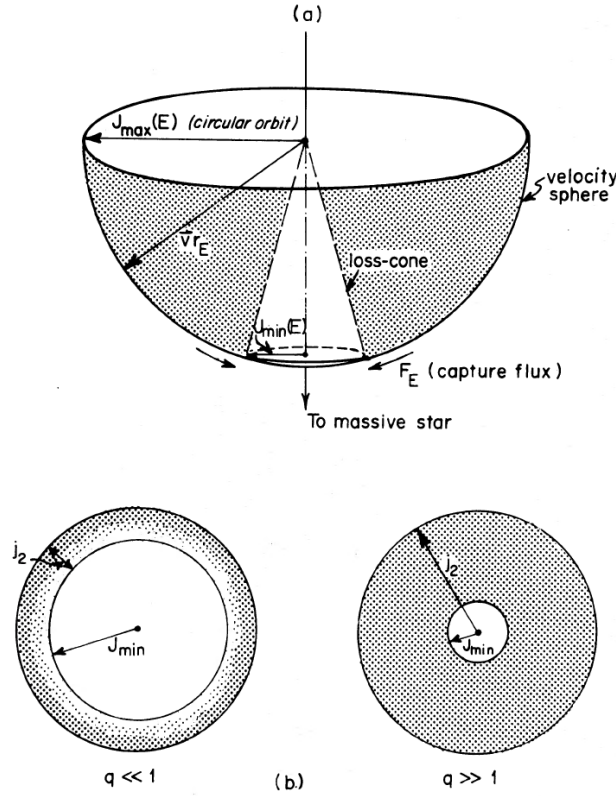


Figure 1.2: Fig. 1(a).—Velocity distribution of stars with fixed energy E ; J varies accordingly to the direction of $\mathbf{v}$ emphasising the two-dimensional nature of the problem. The vertical axis points towards the compact object of mass M . Fig. 1(b).—The velocity sphere viewed from below. On the left the empty loss cone scenario; stellar density is nearly independent of J everywhere but $J \gtrsim J_{\min}$ where it quickly declines. On the right the full loss cone regime; consumed stars are immediately replenished by stars from a region much more extended- and uniform density- than the loss cone itself (the “pinhole” limit). Picture from Lightman and Shapiro (1977).

By employing the same dimensional analysis carried out by Lightman and Shapiro (1977), we expect that the stellar capture rate per unit energy $\Gamma_E(E_*)$ could be written as

$$\Gamma_E(E_*) \equiv \frac{d\Gamma}{dE} \approx \epsilon |E_*|^{-1} F_{\max}(E_*) \quad (1.61)$$

where $F_{\max}(E_*) \sim N(E_*)/P(E_*)$ denotes the maximum rate of loss cone replenishing from stars with specific energy E_* and ϵ is a correction factor helping us to account for the fraction of stars within the loss cone.

Let us focus on the full loss cone regime. The 2-D nature of the problem in the J -space suggests that the area correction factor

$$\epsilon \sim \frac{J_{lc}^2}{(J_{lc} + j_2)^2} \quad (1.62)$$

scales as $\sim J_{lc}^2/J_{\max}^2$.

Therefore, in the pinhole regime, it follows

$$\Gamma_E(E_*) \approx |E_*|^{-1} \frac{a}{r} \frac{N(E_*)}{P(E_*)}. \quad (1.63)$$

From Equation (1.63), we can now derive the stellar flux $F(E_*)$ for an assumed an isothermal sphere of mass M_* and influence radius r_{inf} . If all stars have the same mass m_* , the total

number of stars inside r is simply proportional to the stellar mass enclosed within this sphere, that is

$$N(< r) = \frac{M}{m_*} \frac{r}{r_{inf}}. \quad (1.64)$$

Under the assumption of Keplerian orbits bound to the binary, the energy of each star depends on the semimajor only through the relation

$$E_*(r) = -\frac{GMm_*}{2r}, \quad (1.65)$$

while the orbital period is

$$P(E) = \frac{2\pi GM}{(2|E|)^{3/2}}. \quad (1.66)$$

(Perets, Hopman, et al. 2007) (Perets and Alexander 2008)

$$\frac{d\Gamma}{d\log r} = \frac{a}{r} \frac{N(< r)}{P(r)} \quad (1.67)$$

$$\Gamma_Q = \left(\frac{\rho}{m_*} \right) \Sigma v \quad (1.68)$$

if we set $\Sigma = \pi a^2$

unbound orbit equation

$$r(\phi) = \frac{l}{1 + \cos \phi} \quad (1.69)$$

with $l = J^2/GM$ semilatus rectum.

b impact parameter and v velocity at infinity, grav focusing $J = bv$ and $r_P = l/2$ leads to

$$b^2 = \frac{2GM r_P}{v^2} \quad (1.70)$$

$$\Gamma_Q = 2\pi \left(\frac{M}{m_*} \right) \frac{G\rho a}{v} \quad (1.71)$$

Full loss cone regime $q \gg 1$

For bound almost radial orbit $dE_* = |E_*| \log r$ and

Lightman and Shapiro 1977 Let us consider a massive object M - it may be a BH binary-residing at center of a stellar distribution; far enough from it, stars are unbound, move with rms velocity $\langle v^2 \rangle^{1/2}$ and obey to the Maxwellian distribution, i.e. velocity field is isotropic. Combining M and the rms velocity, we define the influence radius, beyond which stars are mainly unbound, $r_a \sim 2GM/\langle v^2 \rangle$. Stellar orbits are assumed to be driven by the gravity of M at $r < r_a$.

Moreover, close encounters between stars and M may lead to stellar consumption via several processes; they occur on a time scale of the order of the dynamical one, i.e. one orbital period, if r is smaller than the tidal radius r_t , where

A steady state solution in the range $r_t < r < r_a$ requires the rate of stars diffusing inward, crossing r_a , over t_{2b} , equal to the rate of stars consumed at r_t , behaving as a sink of this problem. If E and J denote respectively the star specific energy and angular momentum, it is worth of noticing that not only stars with low energy, i.e. $E \approx E_t \equiv -GM/r_t$ are removed but also high E low J might experience the same fate. At pericenter the radial velocity vanishes and

Inequality (1.57) defines the so called "Loss Cone".

1.4.1 Bound stars consumption

One-Dimensional Analysis

As stellar orbit shape and size around M are set by E and J , the one particle DF can be written as $f = f(E, J)$ according to Jean's theorem. Therefore, the nature of the problem is 2-dimensional; nevertheless, by neglecting loss cone effects, an approximated one-dimensional solution can be obtained under the assumption of quasi-circular orbits where $J = J_{max}(E) = GM/\sqrt{2|E|}$.

In this scenario the boundary conditions for bound stars at $r_t < r < r_a$ read $E_t < E < E_a$ and the DF is $f = f(E)$. The steady state self-similar solution obtained by Peebles relies on the power law DF $f(E) = k|E|^p$ and the corresponding maximum flux of stars in the E space is $F_{max} \sim N(< r)/t_{2b}(r)$.

By definition

$$N(< r) = \int f(E) d^3\mathbf{v} \sim |E|^{p-3/2} \quad (1.72)$$

and $t_{2b} \sim v^3/n \sim |E|^{-p}$; they combine into

$$F_{max}(E) \sim |E|^{2p-3/2}. \quad (1.73)$$

A more accurate analysis yields

$$F(E) = -F_{max}(E)\beta(p), \quad (1.74)$$

where the exact solution, that is the value of p , can be derived by imposing $F(E) = \text{const}$ from the stationarity condition.

Bahcall and Wolf (1976) found the solution $p = 1/4$.

Two-dimensional Analysis: Loss Cone effects

Let us focus on loss cone effects; the DF is now in general a function of both E and J .

By assuming stellar encounters to be dominated by distant and weak gravitational interactions, J diffusion problem can be treated with RW theory and it can be defined the angular momentum step size

$$j_2 \sim J_{max}(t_d/t_r)^{1/2}, \quad (1.75)$$

it represents the dispersion in J suffered over t_d .

The stellar consumption rate per unit energy is

$$-F_E(E) \sim \begin{cases} \frac{F_{max}(E)|E|^{-1}}{\ln\left(\frac{GM}{|E|r_t}\right)}, & q \ll 1 \\ q^{-1}F_{max}(E)|E|^{-1}, & q \gg 1 \end{cases} \quad (1.76)$$

and is strongly peaked at E_{crit} - or equivalently at r_t - at which $q(E_{crit}) \approx 1$.

1.4.2 Unbound stars consumption

Previously it has been pointed out that the majority of the stellar capture involves stars at E_{cri} (or r_{crit}), this indicates that if the critical radius exceeds the influence radius, within which stars are mainly bound, this process affects primarily Unbound stars.

In this region the stellar flux becomes

$$F_{max} \sim \frac{N(< r)}{t_{2b}(r)} \sim \left(\frac{r}{r_a}\right)^3 F_{max}(E_a) \quad (1.77)$$

Several times beyond t_{2b} the system enters the collisional regime and first order corrections to the CBE are needed; the Fokker-Planck equation is an example of this:

$$\frac{Df}{Dt} = C[f] \quad (1.78)$$

where simplifications on the collision operator $C[f]$ can be done.

In this scenario f is no longer conserved along the orbit of the potential Φ and diffusion in the PS occurs, both E and L of a single star can change due to collisions, at odds with the CBE regime where, for instance $DH/Dt = 0$. It is used in the loss cone problem.

1.4.3 Loss cone theory role in Hybrid Model

Devoted to determine evolutionary tracks for BH binaries evolving via three-body scattering with background stars and GWs emission Quinlan 1996 Sesana 2010, one of the key points of the adopted model turns out to be the nature of stars involved in close encounters with the binary. At beginning, when the pair forms, all stars intersecting its orbit, i.e. populating the "Loss cone" are expelled via gravitational slingshot effect mainly; this mechanism results in the erosion of the stellar core and drives efficiently the binary down to a separation of the order of the hardening radius. Thereafter, for the shrinking to proceed, loss cone orbits must be refilled. Without addressing the problem concerning how this process takes place, it is relevant to point out that, once depleted all the stars inside a_h , stars candidate to replenish the loss cone come from outside this region.

Therefore, for nearly equal mass BHs, having $a_h \sim r_{inf}$, or shallow stellar cores from the transition soft/hard on, the scattering with unbound stars becomes dominant until the binary develops efficient GWs emission phase.

Once established whether the vast majority of stars exchanging energy and angular momentum with the binary are bound or unbound to such a pair, the Hybrid model should take into account loss cone status through some parameters. This information enters the model by means of the normalizing density and velocity dispersion of H_u and K_u ; when they are set equal to their value at r_{inf} , the model is assuming that the loss cone is always full at $r > r_{inf}$ (pinhole regime) and empty at $r < r_{inf}$ (diffusive regime).

Testing the model by changing the normalizing quantities serves to investigate how the loss cone refilling affects the binary evolution.

1.5 Gravitational Radiation from Black Hole Binaries

1.5.1 Linearized Gravitational Field Equation

The starting point of the theoretical derivation of GWs properties, such as the energy and angular momentum they transport, from BH binary and the associated back-reaction on the astrophysical source, is the linearization of field equations of General Relativity (GR)

$$R_{\mu\nu} - \frac{1}{2}g_{\mu\nu}R = \frac{8\pi G}{c^4}T_{\mu\nu}. \quad (1.79)$$

These constitute ten coupled, non-linear, second-order partial differential equations for the metric tensor; nevertheless, they are not sufficient to uniquely set the ten independent components of $g_{\mu\nu}$ due to the four Bianchi identities, equivalent to the same number of differential constraints, resulting in six independent equations only. These four degrees of freedom are intimately connected to gauge symmetries, reflecting the arbitrariness of the four coordinates x^μ used to represent and solve Equation (1.79).

To show how gravitational radiation emerges from Equation (1.79), we need to expand it around the Minkowski metric $\eta_{\mu\nu} = \text{diag}(-1, +1, +1, +1)$; therefore we assume

$$g_{\mu\nu}(x) = \eta_{\mu\nu} + h_{\mu\nu}(x), \quad (1.80)$$

with $|h_{\mu\nu}| \ll 1$ being a symmetric tensor representing a small perturbation of the flat spacetime. The left-hand side of Equation (1.79) encodes the geometry and curvature of spacetime and contains all terms that are functions of the metric; in terms of the affine connection

$$\Gamma_{\mu\nu}^{\lambda} = \frac{1}{2}g^{\lambda\rho}(\partial_{\mu}g_{\nu\rho} + \partial_{\nu}g_{\rho\mu} - \partial_{\rho}g_{\mu\nu}) \quad (1.81)$$

and the Riemann tensor

$$R_{\lambda\mu}{}^{\rho}{}_{\nu} = \partial_{\lambda}\Gamma_{\mu\nu}^{\rho} - \partial_{\mu}\Gamma_{\lambda\nu}^{\rho} + \Gamma_{\lambda\sigma}^{\rho}\Gamma_{\mu\nu}^{\sigma} - \Gamma_{\mu\sigma}^{\rho}\Gamma_{\lambda\nu}^{\sigma}, \quad (1.82)$$

they can be expressed indeed as

$$R_{\mu\nu} = R_{\sigma\mu}{}^{\sigma}{}_{\nu} \quad (1.83)$$

and

$$R = g^{\alpha\beta}R_{\alpha\beta} = R^{\sigma}{}_{\sigma}. \quad (1.84)$$

On the right-hand side, instead, appears the Energy-Momentum tensor; it can be read as the source term of the gravitational field equations and turns out to be

$$T^{\mu\nu} = (\rho + p/c^2)u^{\mu}u^{\nu} + pg^{\mu\nu} \quad (1.85)$$

for a perfect fluid of density ρ , pressure p and four-velocity v^{μ} .

It straightforward to prove that, to the first order in the metric perturbation, they become:

$$R_{\mu\nu} = -\frac{1}{2}(\square h_{\mu\nu} + \partial_{\mu}\partial_{\nu}h - \partial_{\lambda}\partial_{\mu}h_{\nu}^{\lambda} - \partial_{\nu}\partial_{\lambda}h_{\mu}^{\lambda}) \quad (1.86)$$

and

$$R = \partial_{\mu}\partial_{\nu}h^{\mu\nu} - \square h, \quad (1.87)$$

where h denotes $h_{\mu\nu}$ trace.

Defining the so-called "trace reverse" of $h_{\mu\nu}$

$$\bar{h}_{\mu\nu} \equiv h_{\mu\nu} - \frac{1}{2}\eta_{\mu\nu}h \quad (1.88)$$

and plugging the terms of Equations (1.86) and (1.87) into Equation (1.79), the field equations take the form

$$\square\bar{h}_{\mu\nu} + \eta_{\mu\nu}\partial_{\alpha}\partial_{\beta}\bar{h}^{\alpha\beta} - \partial_{\mu}\partial_{\lambda}\bar{h}_{\nu}^{\lambda} - \partial_{\nu}\partial_{\lambda}\bar{h}_{\mu}^{\lambda} = -\frac{16\pi G}{c^4}T_{\mu\nu}. \quad (1.89)$$

Taking advantage of the gauge freedom of Equation (1.79), it can be performed an infinitesimal coordinate transformation of the kind

$$x^{\mu} \rightarrow x'^{\mu} = x^{\mu} + \xi^{\mu}(x); \quad (1.90)$$

as tensors obey to precise law of transformation, this yields

$$\bar{h}'_{\mu\nu} = \frac{\partial x^{\alpha}}{\partial x'^{\mu}} \frac{\partial x^{\beta}}{\partial x'^{\nu}} \bar{h}_{\alpha\beta} \approx \bar{h}_{\mu\nu} - \partial_{\mu}\xi_{\nu} - \partial_{\nu}\xi_{\mu} + \eta_{\mu\nu}\partial_{\sigma}\xi^{\sigma}. \quad (1.91)$$

Yet, if the four functions ξ^{μ} are chosen so as to satisfy the so-called De Donder gauge condition, i.e. $\square\xi^{\mu} = \partial_{\sigma}\bar{h}^{\sigma\mu}$, then $\partial_{\sigma}\bar{h}'^{\sigma\mu} = 0$ and, dropping the prime, Equation (1.89) simplifies to

$$\begin{cases} \square\bar{h}_{\mu\nu} = -\frac{16\pi G}{c^4}T_{\mu\nu} \\ \partial_{\mu}\bar{h}^{\mu\nu} = 0. \end{cases} \quad (1.92)$$

We are now ready to address the problem of determining the general solution of the linearized Einstein's equations coupled with the De Donder gauge condition.

1.5.2 Generation and Propagation of Gravitational Waves

To study the formation of GWs we initially focus on the solution of the problem defined in Equation (1.92) inside the source where $T_{\mu\nu} \neq 0$.

Linear partial differential equations solution can be obtained by the method of Green's function; by definition, the Green's function G is the solution of the associated equation in case of a point-like source, i.e.

$$\square_x G(x - x') = \delta^{(4)}(x - x'), \quad (1.93)$$

with $\delta^{(4)}(x - x')$ being the four-dimensional Dirac function.

It is relevant to note that, apart from the B.C. of the problem, G depends only on the linear operator; therefore, from the radiation problem in electromagnetism, we already know that the proper solution is the retarded Green's function

$$G(x - x') = -\frac{1}{4\pi|\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{x}'|} \delta^{(4)}(ct_{ret} - ct'), \quad (1.94)$$

where

$$t_{ret} = t - \frac{|\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{x}'|}{c} \quad (1.95)$$

is the time in past at which the radiation was emitted at $\mathbf{x}'$ in order to be observed at $\mathbf{x}$ at time t . Once the Green's function is found, the general solution will be the convolution between it and source term:

$$\bar{h}_{\mu\nu}(t, \mathbf{x}) = \frac{4G}{c^4} \int d^3x' \frac{T_{\mu\nu}(t_{ret}, \mathbf{x}')}{|\mathbf{x} - \mathbf{x}'|}. \quad (1.96)$$

Prior to examining the formula reported in Equation (1.96) and assessing which additional simplifications can be implemented and when they apply, it is appropriate to analyze how GWs propagate in vacuo.

Outside the GWs source, $T_{\mu\nu}$ vanishes and, owing to the linearity of the d'Alembert operator, the solution can be expressed as superposition of plane waves without loss of generality, that is

$$\bar{h}_{\mu\nu}(x) = \int d^3k (A_{\mu\nu}(\mathbf{k}) e^{ik_\rho x^\rho} + c.c.) \quad (1.97)$$

However, not all plane waves satisfy the linearized field equation in vacuo along with the gauge condition but linearity enables us to study the properties of a single plane wave separately; consequently, inserting the Ansatz $\bar{h}_{\mu\nu} \sim A_{\mu\nu} e^{ik_\rho x^\rho}$ yields the following two constraints:

1. ($k_\rho k^\rho = 0$): the four-vector $k^\mu = (\omega/c, \mathbf{k})$ is a light-like vector (GWs travel at light speed c in vacuo).
2. ($k_\mu A^{\mu\nu} = 0$): it implies $A^{0\nu} = A^{3\nu}$ if we deal with GWs propagating along the x^3 direction, hence $k^\mu = (k, 0, 0, k)$.

At this stage, the amplitude tensor $A^{\mu\nu}$ possesses six independent components — ten, due to symmetry, reduced by the four constraints imposed by the gauge conditions — and can be written as

$$A^{\mu\nu} = \begin{pmatrix} A^{00} & A^{10} & A^{20} & A^{00} \\ A^{10} & A^{11} & A^{12} & A^{10} \\ A^{20} & A^{12} & A^{22} & A^{20} \\ A^{00} & A^{10} & A^{20} & A^{00} \end{pmatrix}. \quad (1.98)$$

Out of the six polarizations shown in Equation (1.98), four are unphysical because they vanish when the residual gauge freedom associated with four arbitrary harmonic functions ξ^μ is exploited. One is free to adopt functions proportional to the plane wave solutions of the vacuo

problem, i.e. $\xi^\mu = \epsilon^\mu e^{ik_\rho x^\rho}$ are harmonic, and to set their amplitudes ϵ^μ such that

$$A_{TT}^{\mu\nu} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \\ 0 & h_+ & h_x & 0 \\ 0 & h_x & -h_+ & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}. \quad (1.99)$$

The coordinate system where $A^{\mu\nu}$ is in the form of Equation (1.99), with two independent polarizations only, and defined by

$$\partial_\mu h^{\mu\nu} = 0, \quad h^{0\mu} = 0, \quad h_i^i = 0, \quad (1.100)$$

is referred to as "TT gauge"¹.

Having analyzed the propagation of GWs in vacuo and the properties of the TT gauge, we are now in the position to focus again on the source solution reported in Equation (1.96). One of the greatest simplifications to this integral consists of the so-called "Compact-source approximation"; it applies outside the source whenever its size is negligible with respect to the source-detector separation. In this regime, we can retain the leading term of the multipole expansion only, thus

$$h_{ij}^{TT}(t, \mathbf{x}) = \frac{4G}{c^4 r} \int d^3 x' T_{ij}(t_{ret}, \mathbf{x}'). \quad (1.101)$$

Furthermore, far from the source, the conservation of the Energy-Momentum tensor, namely $\nabla_\mu T^{\mu\nu} \approx \partial_\mu T^{\mu\nu} = 0$, yields

$$h_{ij}^{TT}(t, \mathbf{x}) = \frac{2G}{rc^4} \ddot{Q}_{ij}^{TT}(t - r/c) \quad (1.102)$$

at lowest order in the low-velocity expansion.

The term Q_{ij}^{TT} introduced in Equation (1.102)² is the representation of the quadrupole moment in the class of coordinate systems satisfying the TT gauge conditions; defining the quadrupole moment of $T^{00}/c^2 = \rho$ as

$$M^{ij} \equiv \frac{1}{c^2} \int d^3 x T^{00}(t, \mathbf{x}) x^i x^j, \quad (1.103)$$

it is thus possible to write

$$Q^{ij} \equiv M^{ij} - \frac{1}{3} \delta^{ij} M_{kk} = \int d^3 x \rho(t, \mathbf{x}) \left(x^i x^j - \frac{1}{3} r^2 \delta^{ij} \right). \quad (1.104)$$

Equation (1.101) shows that, unlike electromagnetic radiation, at lowest order the gravitational radiation arises from changes in the quadrupole moment; other important observables such as the energy and angular momentum carried by GWs, needed to estimate the back-reaction, will be derived from the quantities defined in Equation (1.104) indeed.

The energy and angular momentum conservation laws impose that the rates at which these quantities are carried away by GWs at time t and at large separation r from the source coincide with the corresponding rates of orbital energy —if the emitting system consists of a BH binary— and angular momentum, neglecting the spin contribute, loss evaluated at the appropriate retarded time; in formulae:

$$P_{quad} = \frac{dE_{gw}}{dt} = \frac{G}{5c^5} \langle \ddot{Q}_{ij} \ddot{Q}_{ij} \rangle = -\frac{dE_{source}}{dt}, \quad (1.105)$$

¹In the TT gauge, according to the definition provided, $\bar{h}_{ij}^{TT} = h_{ij}^{TT}$.

²The components with at least one time index are excluded from our analysis because they are constant and therefore do not contribute to GWs formation.

or equivalently in terms of M_{ij}

$$P_{quad} = \frac{G}{5c^5} \left\langle \ddot{M}_{ij} \ddot{M}_{ij} - \frac{1}{3} (\ddot{M}_{kk})^2 \right\rangle, \quad (1.106)$$

and

$$\frac{dL_{gw}^i}{dt} = \frac{2G}{5c^5} \epsilon^{ijk} \langle \ddot{Q}_{jl} \ddot{Q}_{kl} \rangle = -\frac{dL_{source}^i}{dt}. \quad (1.107)$$

Equations (1.105) and (1.107) will be of fundamental importance for estimating the back-reaction induced by GWs emission on the black hole binary.

1.5.3 Gravitational Waves from Black Hole Binaries and Back-Reaction

We now focus on the gravitational radiation emitted by two masses m_1 and m_2 moving along elliptic Keplerian orbit. Let $m = m_1 + m_2$ and $\mu = m_1 \cdot m_2 / m$ be the total mass and the reduced mass respectively.

Regardless of whether the orbit is bound or unbound, the motion of the two bodies takes place in a plane due to the conservation of the angular momentum $\mathbf{L}$; therefore, in this plane, the x-y plane, perpendicular to $\mathbf{L}$, it is convenient to introduce the polar coordinates (r, ψ) with origin at center-of-mass.

In this frame, as before denoted by S_{CM} ,

$$L_z = \mu r^2 \dot{\psi} \quad (1.108)$$

coincides with the modulus L of the constant vector while, as a consequence of the K oenig theorem,

$$E = \frac{1}{2} \mu \dot{r}^2 + \frac{L^2}{2\mu r^2} - \frac{Gm\mu}{r} \quad (1.109)$$

exhibits only the term of kinetic energy corresponding to the relative motion of the system, as in S_{CM} holds $K_{CM} = 0$ by definition.

The integration of Equation (1.109) requires, as in (Capozziello and De Laurentis 2008), the introduction of the auxiliary variable $w(\psi) = 1/r(\psi)$; plugging it into the energy conservation identity, Equation (1.109) becomes

$$w'^2 + w^2 - \frac{2Gm_1 m_2 \mu}{L^2} w = \frac{2\mu E}{L^2} \quad (1.110)$$

where $w' \equiv dw/d\psi$. Differentiating both sides of the last equation with respect to ψ leads to

$$w' \left(w'' + w - \frac{Gm_1 m_2 \mu}{L^2} \right) = 0. \quad (1.111)$$

Apart from the solution $w = \text{const}$, corresponding to a circular binary, the problem admits harmonic-oscillator-like and, upon solving for $r(\psi)$, it is found to be given by

$$r(\psi) = \frac{R}{1 + e \cos \psi}, \quad (1.112)$$

with $R = L^2/(Gm\mu^2)$ being semi-latus rectum — the polar axis is aligned to the major axis $2a$, so that R corresponds to the distance between the origin and the point of the conic at $\psi = \pi/2$ — and is related to the eccentricity e by

$$e^2 = 1 - \frac{R}{a} = 1 + \frac{2EL^2}{G^2 m^2 \mu^3}. \quad (1.113)$$

It is worth of noticing that we are interested in the GWs emission process by a BH binary, which is by definition a gravitationally bound system; therefore, from this point onward it will be assumed $E < 0$ and thus, by virtue of Equation (1.113), $0 \leq e < 1$. Since the two semiaxes are given by

$$a = \frac{R}{1 - e^2} \quad b = \frac{R}{\sqrt{1 - e^2}}, \quad (1.114)$$

inserting Equation (1.113) into the first identity of Equation (1.114) gives the semi-major axis in terms of E ; explicitly:

$$a = -\frac{Gm\mu}{2E} \quad (1.115)$$

It follows that fixing the energy means setting the semi-major axis.

The functions $r(t)$ and $\psi(t)$ can be obtained by direct integration of Equations (1.108) and (1.109); they are usually given in the parametric form

$$r(t) = a[1 - e \cos u(t)] \quad \psi(t) = \frac{\cos u(t) - e}{1 - e \cos u(t)} \quad (1.116)$$

in terms of the "eccentric anomaly" u defined in the famous Kepler equation

$$u(t) - e \sin u(t) = \left(\frac{Gm}{a^3} \right)^{1/2} t \equiv \omega_0 t. \quad (1.117)$$

The transformation from polar coordinates (r, ψ) to Cartesian ones (x, y) is illustrated below

$$\begin{cases} x = r \cos \psi = a [\cos u(t) - e] \\ y = r \sin \psi = b \sin u(t). \end{cases} \quad (1.118)$$

We now possess all the necessary ingredients to proceed with the computation of the rates of energy and angular momentum carried by GWs, which will play a fundamental role in assessing the back-reaction on the binary system.

In the reference system S_{CM} holds $\rho(t, \mathbf{x}) = \mu \delta(x - r \cos \psi) \delta(y - r \sin \psi) \delta(z)$ and, according to Equation (1.103), it is immediate to get

$$M_{ij} = \mu r^2(t) \begin{bmatrix} \cos^2(\psi) & \sin(\psi) \cos(\psi) \\ \sin(\psi) \cos(\psi) & \sin^2(\psi) \end{bmatrix}. \quad (1.119)$$

The time derivatives are easier computed when r , which is a function of time itself, is expressed as a function of ψ ; this is accomplished by replacing this variable with the general solution of the two-body problem provided by Equation (1.112). A simple computation returns the third time derivatives needed to derive the power radiated in the quadrupole approximation, i.e.

$$\ddot{M}_{11} = \beta(1 + e \cos \psi)^2 [2 \sin 2\psi + 3e \sin \psi \cos^2 \psi], \quad (1.120)$$

$$\ddot{M}_{22} = \beta(1 + e \cos \psi)^2 [-2 \sin 2\psi - e \sin \psi (1 + 3 \cos^2 \psi)], \quad (1.121)$$

$$\ddot{M}_{12} = \beta(1 + e \cos \psi)^2 [-2 \cos 2\psi + e \cos \psi (1 - 3 \cos^2 \psi)], \quad (1.122)$$

where the factor β is defined as

$$\beta^2 \equiv \frac{4G^3 \mu^2 m^3}{a^5 (1 - e^2)^5}. \quad (1.123)$$

By means of Equation (1.105) we get in conclusion

$$P(\psi) = \frac{8G^4}{15c^5} \frac{\mu^2 m^3}{a^5(1-e^2)^5} (1 + e \cos(\psi))^4 [12(1 + e \cos(\psi))^2 + e^2 \sin^2(\psi)]. \quad (1.124)$$

However, we recall that this instantaneous quantity is not constant over one orbital period for elliptic Keplerian orbits as in general M_{ij} will suffer from different rate of variation from pericenter to apocenter; therefore, taking the temporal average over one orbital period, $T \equiv 2\pi/\omega_0$ returns

$$P \equiv \frac{1}{T} \int_0^T dt P(\psi) = \frac{\omega_0}{2\pi} \int_0^{2\pi} d\psi \frac{P(\psi)}{\dot{\psi}} = \frac{32G^4 \mu^2 m^3}{5c^5 a^5} F(e), \quad (1.125)$$

with

$$F(e) = \frac{1}{(1-e^2)^{7/2}} \left(1 + \frac{73}{24}e^2 + \frac{37}{96}e^4 \right) \quad (1.126)$$

being a function strongly depending on the eccentricity, which reduces to unity in case of circular binary.

Throughout the inspiral phase, the binary radiates not only energy but angular momentum as well, carried by GWS, and undergoes secular changes in both semimajor axis and ellipticity until coalescence eventually occurs. Therefore, another key ingredient in evaluating the back-reaction on the binary evolution is the determination of the angular momentum loss rate. It is quantified in Equation (1.107) which becomes

$$\frac{dL_{source}^i}{dt} = -\frac{2G}{5c^5} \epsilon^{ikl} \langle \ddot{M}_{ka} \ddot{M}_{la} \rangle \quad (1.127)$$

as the terms of the form $\epsilon^{ijk} \delta_{jl} \ddot{Q}_{kl}$ vanish, since they correspond to the contraction of an antisymmetric tensor with a symmetric one.

Taking into account that, in S_{CM} , all components M_{i3} are identically zero and that $L = L_z = L_{source}^3$, one can rewrite Equation (1.127) in a more convenient form consistent with the previous arguments:

$$\frac{dL}{dt} = \frac{4G}{5c^5} \langle \ddot{M}_{12} (\ddot{M}_{11} - \ddot{M}_{22}) \rangle. \quad (1.128)$$

The last identity provides dL/dt in terms of the second and third derivatives of the quadrupole moment of ρ ; although the second derivative $\ddot{M}_{12}$ has not been computed explicitly yet, it follows straightforwardly from the same procedure used to derive $\ddot{M}_{ij}$, hence

$$\ddot{M}_{12} = \frac{G\mu m}{a(1-e^2)} \sin \psi \left[-4(1 + e \cos \psi)^2 \cos \psi + 2e (3 \cos^2 \psi - 1 + 2e \cos^3 \psi) \right]. \quad (1.129)$$

Yet, adopting the expressions for reported in Equations (1.120), (1.121) and (1.129) respectively, we get the angular momentum loss, corresponding to minus the angular momentum carried by the gravitational radiation in the quadrupole approximation; then, the temporal average over a single orbital period T , transformed into an integral over the angular position ψ , returns

$$\frac{dL}{dt} = -\frac{32}{5} \frac{G^{7/2} \mu^2 m^{5/2}}{c^5 a^{7/2}} \frac{1}{(1-e^2)^2} \left(1 + \frac{7}{8}e^2 \right) \quad (1.130)$$

Lastly, the semi-major axis and eccentricity evolution of the BH binary results by imposing the conservation of the energy and angular momentum of the system composed of the binary and GWs; differentiating Equations (1.113) and (1.115) with respect to the time yields

$$\frac{da}{dt} = \frac{Gm\mu}{2E^2(a)} (-P) \quad (1.131)$$

and

$$2e \frac{de}{dt} = \frac{2}{G^2 m^2 \mu^3} \left[-PL^2(a, e) + 2E(a)L(a, e) \frac{dL}{dt} \right]. \quad (1.132)$$

By rearranging all the terms and performing the appropriate substitutions, Peters and Mathews (1963) gave

$$\frac{da}{dt} = -\frac{64}{5} \frac{G^3 \mu m^2}{c^5 a^3} \frac{1}{(1-e^2)^{7/2}} \left(1 + \frac{73}{24}e^2 + \frac{37}{96}e^4 \right) \quad (1.133)$$

along with

$$\frac{de}{dt} = -\frac{304}{15} \frac{G^3 \mu m^2}{c^5 a^4} \frac{e}{(1-e^2)^{5/2}} \left(1 + \frac{121}{304}e^2 \right) \quad (1.134)$$

that has been employed by Quinlan (1996) and Sesana (2010) in order to reconstruct evolutionary tracks of BH binaries through a "Hybrid model", which will be described later.

Equations (1.133) and (1.134) prove that GWs emission is efficient, more precisely at little binary separation due to a^{-3} and a^{-4} dependence respectively, not only in shrinking the BHs pair, by extracting orbital energy, but in promoting the orbit circularization as well, thus making this mechanism dominant over stellar scattering at late stage of binary inspiral.

Furthermore, another key piece of information that can be derived from the theory is the expected coalescence time τ of the binary in the case of gravitational-wave emission alone. This should reproduce the characteristic hardening timescale of the final stage, when orbital shrinking driven by gravitational radiation takes over stellar scattering. This is obtained by combining Equations (1.133) and (1.134); this mathematical operation leads to a differential equation for $a = a(e)$, which reads

$$\frac{da}{de} = \frac{12}{19} \frac{1 + \frac{73}{24}e^2 + \frac{37}{96}e^4}{e(1-e^2) \left(1 + \frac{121}{304}e^2 \right)}. \quad (1.135)$$

The last equation admits analytic solution of the kind

$$a(e) = a_0 \frac{g(e)}{g(e_0)} \quad (1.136)$$

where

$$g(e) = \frac{e^{12/19}}{1-e^2} \left(1 + \frac{121}{304}e^2 \right)^{870/2299} \quad (1.137)$$

and (a_0, e_0) denotes the initial point of the of binary evolutionary track.

Last but not least, given the BH binary initial condition (a_0, e_0) , the coalescence time is found by integration over the eccentricity and by noticing that, if we set $(a(0), e(0)) = (a_0, e_0)$, $e(\tau) = 0$ due to orbit circularization:

$$\tau(a_0, e_0) = \int_0^{\tau(a_0, e_0)} dt = \int_{e_0}^0 de \frac{dt}{de} = \int_{e_0}^0 de \frac{a^4(e)(1-e^2)^{5/2}}{e \left(1 + \frac{121}{304}e^2 \right)}. \quad (1.138)$$

By substituting Equation (1.136) into Equation (1.138) one gets the final expression

$$\tau_{\text{coal}}(a_0, e_0) = \frac{12}{19} \frac{c^5}{G^3} \frac{a_0^4}{\mu m^2} \int_0^{e_0} \frac{e^{29/19} \left(1 + \frac{121}{304}e^2 \right)^{1181/2299}}{(1-e^2)^{3/2}} de. \quad (1.139)$$

2

A HYBRID APPROACH TO BINARY EVOLUTION

2.1 Quinlan Formalism

2.1.1 Introduction

In this work, binary evolution embedded in a fixed stellar background problem is addressed in a hybrid fashion providing a self consistent analytical framework where dimensionless rates are directly estimated from scattering experiments.

Scattering experiments are carried out for the restricted three-body problem and proceed until either the binary coalesce or stellar ejection has become so important that the host galaxy can no longer be considered fixed.

Three dimensionless quantities (H, K, J) are measured from numerical experiments and defined as:

$$H = \frac{\sigma}{G\rho} \frac{d}{dt} \left(\frac{1}{a} \right), \quad (2.1)$$

$$K = \frac{de}{d \ln(1/a)} \quad (2.2)$$

and

$$J = \frac{1}{M_{12}} \frac{dM_{ej}}{d \ln(1/a)}. \quad (2.3)$$

Equations (2.1), (2.2) and (2.3) introduce the so called dimensionless hardening rate H , eccentricity growth rate K and mass loss rate. Once (H, J, K) are obtained from scattering experiments, the system of coupled differential equations can be solved for the binary semi-major axis, eccentricity and ejected mass time derivatives and numerical methods will eventually return their evolution within the fixed galaxy model of interest.

2.1.2 Quinlan Scattering Experiments

Although stars approach the binary with a wide velocity distribution, consistent with the adopted σ , simulations are performed considering a unique value of the velocity at infinity (thus are **UNBOUND**) then accounting for a Maxwellian distribution Quinlan 1996.

This simplification leads to the estimate of the so called $H_1(v)$ first, which thus allows to obtain $H(\sigma)$ by integration over all possible velocities and weighted by MB distribution.

Therefore from each scattering experiment is measured the dimensionless energy change

$$C = \frac{a\Delta E_*}{G\mu} \quad (2.4)$$

and is then averaged over binary orientation (4π) and phase (2π).

By introducing the quantity

$$b_0^2 = \frac{2GM_{12}a}{v^2} \quad (2.5)$$

in order to work with the dimensionless impact parameter $x = b/b_0$, finally:

$$H_1 = \frac{1}{\pi b_0^2} \int db 2\pi b 4\pi \langle C \rangle = 8\pi \int dx \quad x \langle C \rangle \equiv 8\pi I_x(C). \quad (2.6)$$

Similarly, assuming a given velocity for scattering experiments, the eccentricity growth rate K is obtained from K_1 .

The differentiation of

$$e^2 = 1 + \frac{2EL^2}{\mu(GM_{12})^2} \quad (2.7)$$

returns

$$\frac{\Delta e}{\Delta \ln(1/a)} = \frac{1 - e^2}{2e} \left[-2 \left(\frac{E}{\Delta E} \right) \left(\frac{\Delta L_z}{L_z} \right) - 1 \right] = \frac{1 - e^2}{2e} (B - C), \quad (2.8)$$

where B is the dimensionless angular momentum change defined as

$$B \equiv -\frac{M_{12}}{m_*} \frac{\Delta L_z}{L_z}. \quad (2.9)$$

Finally, integrating over all possible impact parameter, angles and normalizing the result, K_1 can be computed as

$$K_1 = \frac{\int dx \quad x C(x) \langle \frac{\Delta e}{\Delta \ln(1/a)} \rangle}{\int dx \quad x C(x)} = \frac{(1 - e^2)}{2e} \left[\frac{I_x(B - C)}{I_x(C)} \right]. \quad (2.10)$$

NOTE: During three-body encounters, star-binary energy and angular momentum exchange ensures the conservation of both of them; thus the binary evolution can be inferred from stellar orbital properties evolution.

The initial setup of each scattering experiment is completely fixed by the following $d = 5$ uniformly distributed- within a proper interval- parameters :

1. b^2 rather than b because $t_{coll} \propto \lambda \propto \sigma^{-1} \propto b^{-2}$. Thus reproducing correctly the encounter rate.
2. cosine of the inclination: angle between binary $\mathbf{L}$ and $\mathbf{v}(-\infty)$.
3. longitude of ascending node: azimuthal angle of $\mathbf{v}(-\infty)$ in $\mathbf{L}$ equatorial plane
4. the argument of pericenter (point of closest approach): it fixes ellipse orientation over the orbital plane
5. the mean anomaly to specify BHs position along the ellipse at a given time.

Once these parameters are drawn and convenient coordinates are adopted, the numerical integration starts at binary-star separation $r = 50a$ and is stopped when the star leaves this sphere around the binary with positive energy, hence recording the main quantities of interest. Systematic errors arise from approximations used in order to simplify the numerical simulation, for instance: assuming keplerian orbit outside that sphere, thus stopping at zero order term in multipole expansion.

Statistical errors in any average quantity scale, at large number of scatterings N , as $(\ln N)^d/N$ because quasi-random numbers are used.

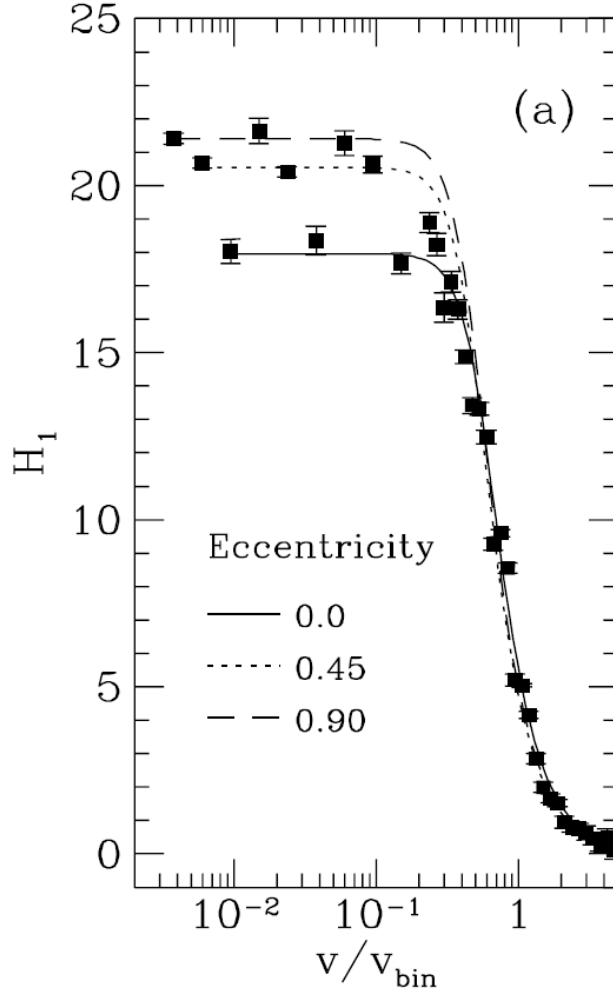


Figure 2.1: This plot shows that H_1 is almost independent of the eccentricity.

H_1 is measured for a wide range of masses ratio and eccentricity and fitted with the two free-parameters model

$$H_1(v) = H_0(1 + (v/w)^4)^{-1/2}. \quad (2.11)$$

NOTE: "This fits the data well at high and low velocities. It does not fit so well when H_1 first starts to decrease"

Similarly K_1 is derived as a function of "e" and fitted with the following three parameters model:

$$K_1(e) = e(1 - e^2)^{k_0}(k_1 + k_2e) \quad (2.12)$$

NOTE: H_1 is a function of v only while K_1 on both e and v .

All free parameters are obtained for different masses ratio.

NOTE : in Sesana 2010, Fig 2.1 is reported as H vs a but this agrees with the functional form of H_1 and $V_{bin} = \sqrt{GM_{12}/a}$.

Therefore, the hardening rate for a circular binary have been used for all eccentricities.

2.1.3 Application to a galaxy model

Once stellar density ρ and velocity dispersion σ are specified, the binary BH is introduced at center of the system with a given initial eccentricity e_0 and separation a_0 such that $V_{bin} = \sigma/5$. The last corresponds to a condition about a_0 which is model independent and for the binary to be soft at beginning of the integration; a BH binary is indeed called hard if it hardens at a

constant rate, that is if $\sigma \ll \omega$ or equivalently if $V_{bin}/\sigma \gg (1 + m_1/m_2)^{1/2}$.
Peters (1964) equation for gravitational wave emission

$$\frac{da}{dt} = -\frac{64}{5} \frac{G^3 \mu m^2}{c^5 a^3} \frac{1}{(1 - e^2)^{7/2}} \left(1 + \frac{73}{24} e^2 + \frac{37}{96} e^4 \right) \quad (2.13)$$

$$\frac{de}{dt} = -\frac{304}{15} \frac{G^3 \mu m^2}{c^5 a^4} \frac{e}{(1 - e^2)^{5/2}} \left(1 + \frac{121}{304} e^2 \right) \quad (2.14)$$

are considered as well in order to compute da/dt and de/dt .

Despite dM_{ej}/dt is computed, a and e evolution can be assumed to occur in a fixed background whenever this is negligible; the ejected mass hardly exceeds a few times M_{12} .

Nevertheless, the stellar mass ejection makes the binary hardening less and less efficient; once nearby stars are expelled, the hardening rate depends on the diffusion of stars back into the "Loss cone" due to two-body relaxation.

If stars removal is efficient, correction to the density profile must be applied assuming a given rate for the process above.

Fig.2.2 shows that the binary evolves mainly through three phases separated by two threshold distances:

1. $a_h = \frac{Gm_2}{4\sigma^2}$
2. a_{gw}

Quasi-circular binaries ($e_0 < 0.3$) remain circular with little e -growth before entering the GWs emission domain, while eccentricity increment is more important if $e_0 > 0.3$.

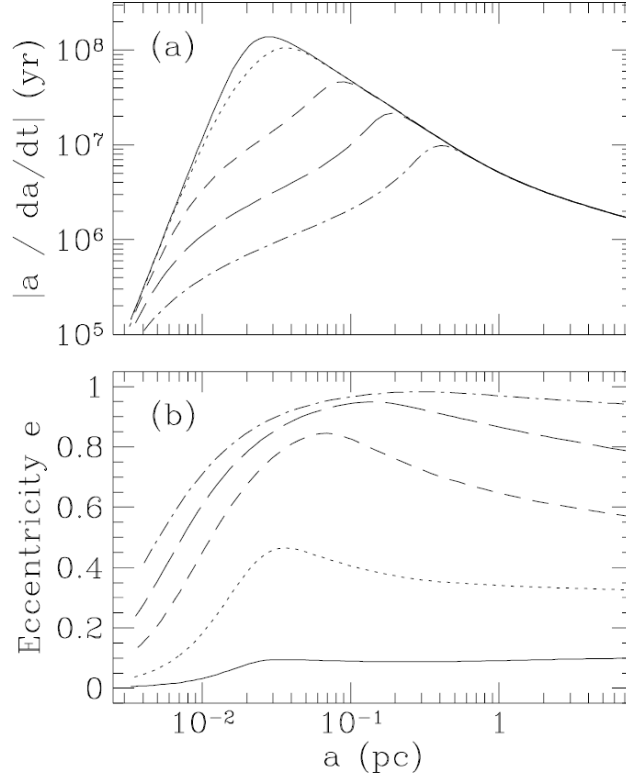


Figure 2.2: Eccentricity evolution. The solid line is the same as in Fig. 7(a); the other lines assume initial eccentricities of 0.3 (dotted), 0.5, 0.7, and 0.9 (dashed-dotted).

2.2 Sesana Hybrid Model

2.2.1 Sesana Scattering Experiments

This work Sesana, Haardt, et al. 2006 is aimed at unveiling by full three-body scattering experiments how a population of HVS form as a result of the interaction between a MBHB and ambient stars, unbound to the binary, drawn from a MB distribution. Other than the dynamical properties of these HVS, binary hardening, mass ejection rate and eccentricity growth rate (H, J, K) are tracked by numerical simulations.

Dynamical friction is efficient (especially in wet major mergers) in dragging two massive BHs towards the innermost region of the new formed galaxy; over the time scale t_{df} the binary forms and hardens through gravitational slingshot, hence ejecting low angular momentum stars passing close to the binary.

Following Q96 approach, the equations defining (H, J, K) are (2.1), (2.3) and (2.2).

At odds with Q96, where three-body scattering experiments are conducted for a fixed impact velocity, varying the binary separation and then averaging over the Maxwellian distribution, now the separation is fixed, i.e. $V_c = (GM_{12}/a)^{1/2} = \text{const}$, and the quantity v/V_c is sampled over four decades, corresponding to a sampling of about four decades in binary separation.

Each run is set by the initial configuration, corresponding to a point in the parameter space (q, e_0); the combination of binary masses ratio $q = 1, 1/3, 1/9, 1/27, 1/81, 1/243$ and initial eccentricity $e_0 = 0.01, 0.3, 0.6, 0.9$ leads to 24 runs, involving $4 \cdot 10^6$ stars each.

The (Maxwellian averaged) rates H, J , and K derived from scattering experiments are fitted by the following functions

$$H = A(1 + a/a_0)^\gamma \quad (2.15)$$

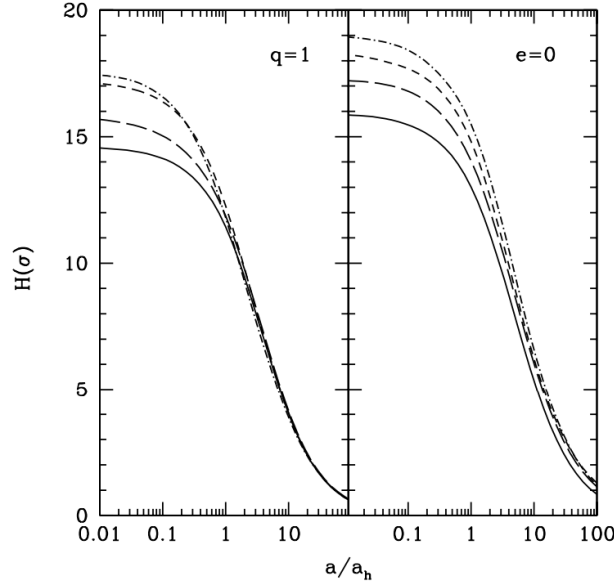


Figure 2.3: Binary hardening rate H (averaged over a Maxwellian velocity distribution) vs. a/a_h . Left: $e = 0, 0.3, 0.6, 0.9$ for $q = 1$. Right: $q = \frac{1}{4}, \frac{1}{3}, \frac{1}{9}, \frac{1}{27}$ for $e = \frac{1}{4}, 0$. Line style as in Fig. 1

$$J = A(a/a_0)^\alpha [(1 + (a/a_0)^\beta)^\gamma] \quad (2.16)$$

$$K = A(1 + a/a_0)^\gamma + B. \quad (2.17)$$

Figure 2.3 shows that the hardening rate is nearly constant when $a < a_h$, in perfect agreement with Q96 results. Therefore hard binary can be characterised by a constant hardening rate. Additionally, H decreases with q (asymmetric binaries harden faster) and increases with eccentricity (circular binaries harden more slowly).

As reported in Figure 2.4, K is close to zero at any binary separation for circular binary; if the binary is eccentric at a_h already, then K (and e) increases monotonically with binary shrinking.

NOTE: in this paper the binary shrinking is studied taking into account gravitational slingshot on UNBOUND stars passing close to binary and ejected at higher velocity. In particular:

1. the ejection criterion relies on the stellar background model (here SIS stellar Bulge is considered)
2. The stellar background is assumed to be fixed; this approximation holds if the ejected mass does not exceed a threshold
3. Binary shrinking requires low angular momentum stars as they have to pass closer and closer to the binary BHs for slingshot to be effective; however from $a < a_h$ the fraction of stars with these properties, populating the so called "Loss cone", is very small. Being depleted by three-body encounters, binary hardening when binary is hard depends on the efficiency of loss cone refilling.

Bound stars Sesana, Haardt, et al. 2008 ,Sesana 2010

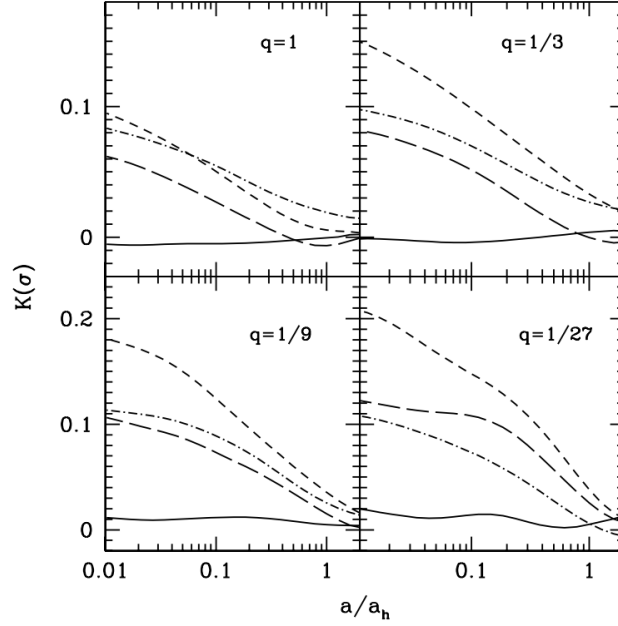


Figure 2.4: Eccentricity evolution. The solid line is the same as in Fig. 7(a); the other lines assume initial eccentricities of 0.3 (dotted), 0.5, 0.7, and 0.9 (dashed-dotted).

2.2.2 Sesana 2010 Results and Comparison

As confirmed by observations of galaxies hosting a dynamically evolved BH binary, stellar scouring by binary hardening seems to imprint an inner cusp to the original stellar background. Motivated by this emerging picture, Sesana 2010 adopted a stellar density profile matching a SIS outside the binary influence radius r_{inf} and a power law distribution inside; in formulae:

$$\left\{ \begin{array}{ll} \rho(r) = \rho_{inf} \left(\frac{r}{r_{inf}} \right)^{-\gamma} & \text{if } r < r_{inf} \\ \rho(r) = \frac{\sigma^2}{2\pi G r^2} & \text{if } r > r_{inf} \end{array} \right.$$

Here σ indicates the radius-independent velocity dispersion of SIS model and it assumed to be a function of binary mass $M = M_1 + M_2$, such that $q = M_2/M_1 < 1$, through Tremaine et al. 2002

$$M_6 = 0.84\sigma_{70}^4. \quad (2.18)$$

Dynamical friction is efficient in dragging two BHs down to the separation a_0 at which the enclosed stellar mass in the binary is twice the mass of the secondary BH, i.e.

$$a_0 = (3 - \gamma) \frac{GM}{\sigma^2} \left(\frac{q}{1+q} \right)^{1/(3-\gamma)} = r_{inf} \left(\frac{q}{1+q} \right)^{1/(3-\gamma)}, \quad (2.19)$$

and is adopted as starting point of the numerical integration.

Hereafter, three competing mechanisms are involved:

1. Bound cusp erosion:

$$\left. \frac{da}{dt} \right|_b = - \frac{2a^2}{GM_1 M_2} \int_0^\infty \Delta \mathcal{E} \frac{d^2 N_{ej}}{da_\star dt} da_\star \quad (2.20)$$

$$\left. \frac{de}{dt} \right|_b = \int_0^\infty \Delta e \frac{d^2 N_{ej}}{da_\star dt} da_\star \quad (2.21)$$

2. Slingshot of unbound stars:

$$\left. \frac{da}{dt} \right|_u = -\frac{a^2 G \rho}{\sigma} H \quad (2.22)$$

$$\left. \frac{de}{dt} \right|_u = \frac{a G \rho}{\sigma} H K \quad (2.23)$$

3. Gravitational waves emission Peters and Mathews 1963:

$$\left. \frac{da}{dt} \right|_{\text{GW}} = -\frac{64}{5} \frac{G^3}{c^5} \frac{M_1 M_2 M}{a^3 (1-e^2)^{7/2}} \left(1 + \frac{73}{24} e^2 + \frac{37}{96} e^4 \right) \equiv -\frac{64}{5} \frac{G^3}{c^5} \frac{M_1 M_2 M}{a^3} F(e) \quad (2.24)$$

$$\left. \frac{de}{dt} \right|_{\text{GW}} = -\frac{304}{15} \frac{G^3}{c^5} \frac{M_1 M_2 M}{a^4 (1-e^2)^{5/2}} e \left(1 + \frac{121}{304} e^2 \right) \quad (2.25)$$

Being indipendet of each other, by superposition, we can put the pieces together and the evolution of the binary obeys to

$$\frac{da}{dt} = \sum_i \left. \frac{da}{dt} \right|_i \quad (2.26)$$

$$\frac{de}{dt} = \sum_i \left. \frac{de}{dt} \right|_i. \quad (2.27)$$

Besides, an equal number of regimes can be introduced whereby one single mechanism is dominant over the others; lengthscale boundaries are a_0 ,

$$a_h \approx \frac{1}{4(3-\gamma)} \left(\frac{q}{1+q} \right)^{(2-\gamma)(3-\gamma)} \quad (2.28)$$

and

$$a_{\text{GW}} = 4 \left[\frac{128\pi(3-\gamma)F(e)}{5H} \right]^{1/5} \frac{\sigma}{c} q^{-4/5} (1+q)^{3/5} a_h \quad (2.29)$$

respectively.

We recall that

$$\rho_{\text{inf}} = \frac{\sigma^2}{2\pi G r_{\text{inf}}^2} \quad (2.30)$$

and that setting $\rho = \rho_{\text{inf}}$ inside Equation (2.49) is equivalent to impose a full loss-cone outside the binary sphere of influence during the unbound phase; the effects due to different normalizations could be explored.

Sesana Sesana 2010 explored a relatively wide region of the phase space related to the initial configuration of the binary; here, we report the comparison between Sesana and our evolutionary track for $(q, \gamma, e_0, M) = (1, 1.5, 0.1, 10^5 M_\odot)$.

This kind of configuration, among the analyzed ones, is quite relevant to our studies on IMBH binaries at high z as they are expected to be more symmetric then their local universe cousins. As pointed out at the end of Section 1.4, a_h and r_{inf} are of the order of $\sim GM/\sigma^2$ and the bound cusp erosion process can be suppressed at first instance.

The estimate of the hardening radius, below which a_h is nearly costant, and the best fitting parameters in Table 1 Sesana, Haardt, et al. 2006 allows us to find

$$H = A(1 + a/a_0)^\gamma; \quad (2.31)$$

the function is shown in Figure 2.5.

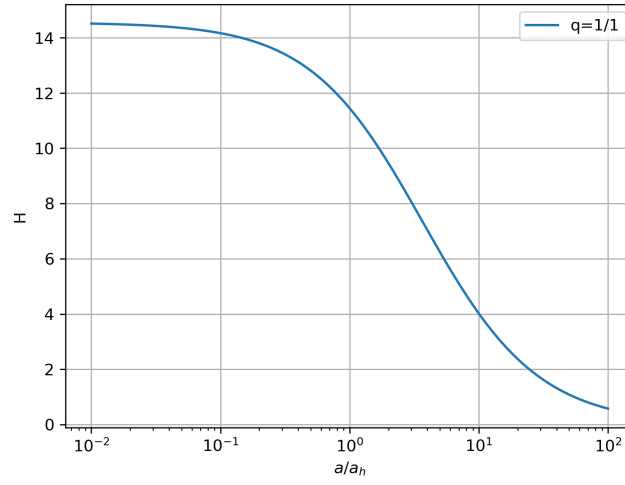


Figure 2.5: H as a function of a expressed in a_h units.

TABLE 1
HARDENING RATE

q	A	a_0	γ
1.....	14.55	3.48	-0.95
1/3	15.82	4.18	-0.90
1/9	17.17	3.59	-0.79
1/27	18.15	3.32	-0.77
1/81	18.81	3.87	-0.82
1/243	19.16	4.16	-0.86

Figure 2.6: Note: a_0 is given in a_h units.

Similarly, by interpolation over the eccentricity grid of Table 3 Sesana, Haardt, et al. 2006 parameters, it is obtained

$$K = A(1 + a/a_0)^\gamma + B. \quad (2.32)$$

TABLE 3
ECCENTRICITY GROWTH RATE

e	A	a_0	γ	B
$q = 1$				
0.15.....	0.037	0.339	-3.335	-0.012
0.3.....	0.075	0.151	-1.548	-0.008
0.45.....	0.105	0.088	-0.893	-0.005
0.6.....	0.121	0.090	-0.895	-0.008
0.75.....	0.134	0.064	-0.544	-0.006
0.9.....	0.082	0.085	-0.663	-0.004
$q = 1/3$				
0.15.....	0.082	0.042	-0.168	-0.048
0.3.....	0.095	0.213	-1.152	-0.012
0.45.....	0.129	0.137	-0.655	-0.006
0.6.....	0.166	0.081	-0.546	-0.006
0.75.....	0.159	0.079	-0.497	-0.010
0.9.....	0.095	0.122	-0.716	-0.008
$q = 1/9$				
0.15.....	0.051	0.385	-0.891	-0.011
0.3.....	0.111	0.307	-1.107	-0.007
0.45.....	0.172	0.526	-1.174	-0.016
0.6.....	0.181	0.251	-1.169	-0.007
0.75.....	0.179	0.195	-0.846	-0.004
0.9.....	0.117	0.400	-1.170	-0.001
$q = 1/27$				
0.15.....	0.064	0.284	-1.206	0.021
0.3.....	0.143	1.033	-1.537	-0.021
0.45.....	0.212	0.722	-1.257	-0.022
0.6.....	0.216	0.430	-1.163	-0.014
0.75.....	0.173	0.771	-1.934	-0.014
0.9.....	0.129	0.329	-1.125	-0.020

Figure 2.7: Note: a_0 is given in a_h units.

Figure 2.8,2.9, 2.10 and 2.11 report the results of this mathematical operation.

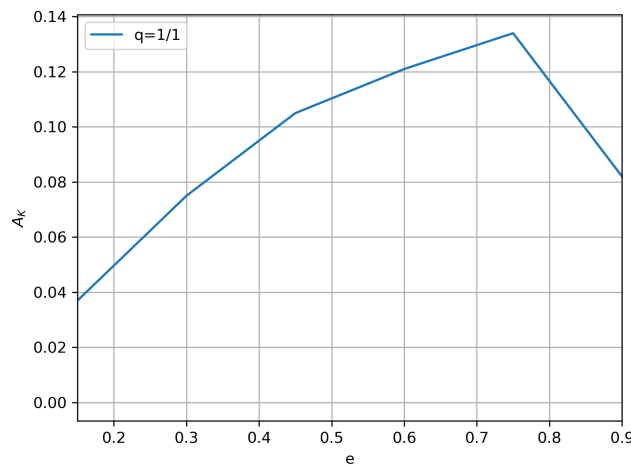


Figure 2.8: A as a function of e derived by interpolation of grid points.

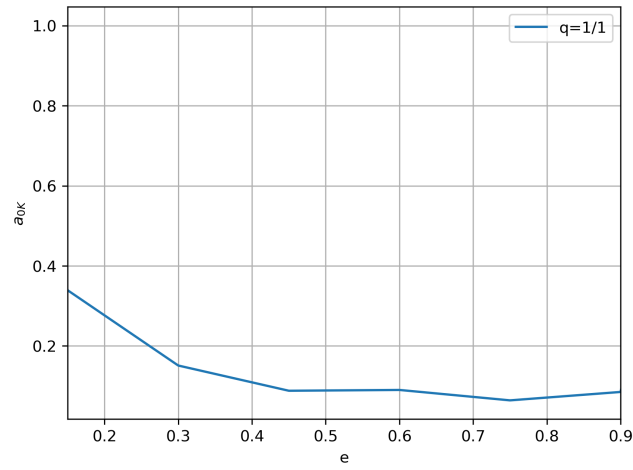


Figure 2.9: A as a function of e derived by interpolation of grid points.

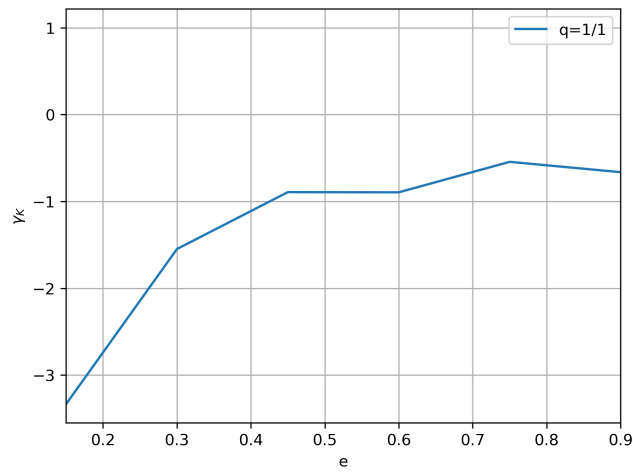


Figure 2.10: γ as a function of e derived by interpolation of grid points.

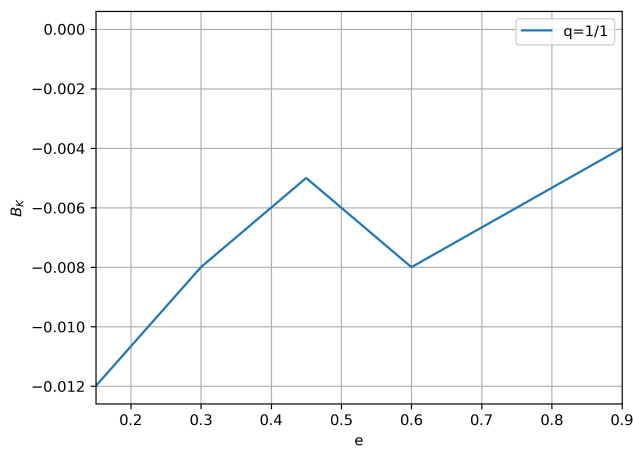


Figure 2.11: B as a function of e derived by interpolation of grid points.

Therefore, at odds with H , K is a function of (a, e) ; we list below the plots of the 1-D functions $K(a) = K(a, e_0)$ and $K(e) = K(a_h, e)$.

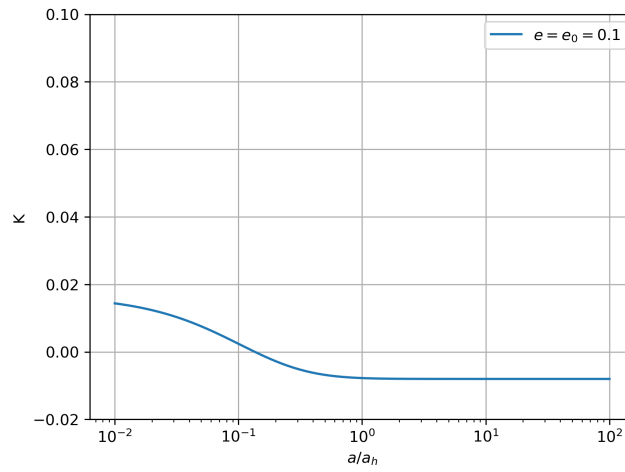


Figure 2.12

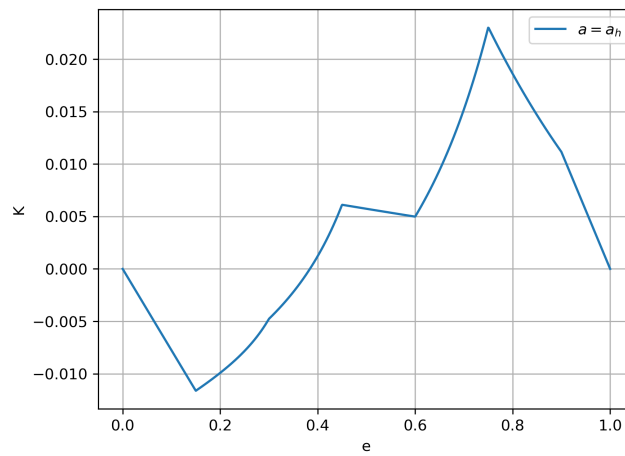


Figure 2.13

We anticipate that Equations (2.26) and (2.27) will be integrated with the help of RK(4) and dK/de is needed as well; Figure 2.14 depicts the step-like function.

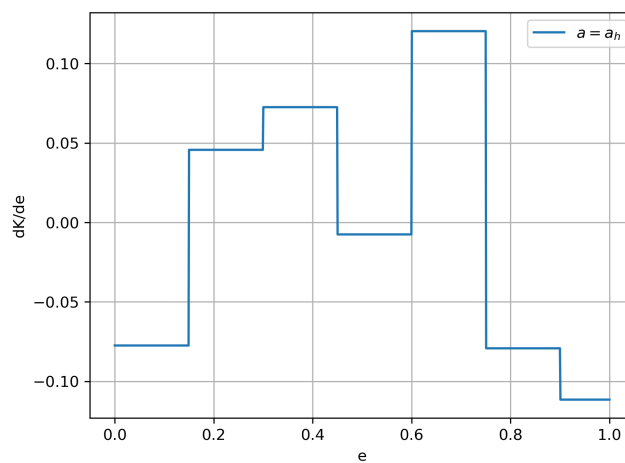


Figure 2.14

The time step is adjusted at each iteration according to the prescription

$$\Delta t \leq \min \left\{ \frac{2.79}{|\lambda_i|} \right\} \quad \forall i = 1, N \quad (2.33)$$

where λ_i are the Jacobian $\mathbf{J}$ eigenvalues. The elements of this matrix are:

$$J_{11} = \left. \frac{da}{dt} \right|_u \left(\frac{2}{a} + \frac{\gamma}{a + a_0 a_h} \right) - \left. \frac{da}{dt} \right|_{gw} \left(\frac{3}{a} \right) \quad (2.34)$$

$$J_{12} = \left. \frac{da}{dt} \right|_{GW} \left(\frac{7e}{1 - e^2} + \frac{73e/12 + 37e^3/24}{1 + 73e^2/24 + 37e^4/96} \right) \quad (2.35)$$

$$J_{21} = \left. \frac{de}{dt} \right|_u \left(\frac{1}{a} + \frac{\gamma_H}{a + a_{0,H} a_h} + \frac{\gamma_K}{a + a_{0,K} a_h} \right) - \left. \frac{de}{dt} \right|_{GW} \left(\frac{4}{a} \right) \quad (2.36)$$

$$J_{22} = \left. \frac{de}{dt} \right|_u \left(\frac{\partial \ln K}{\partial e} \right) + \left. \frac{de}{dt} \right|_{GW} \left(\frac{5e}{1 - e^2} + \frac{1 + 363e^2/304}{e + 121e^3/304} \right) \quad (2.37)$$

In order to compare Sesana predictions with our model we set (t_0, a_0, e_0) for the unbound phase to be effective and selecting these values directly from Sesana plot: $(t_0, a_0, e_0) = (12 Myr, 0.05 \cdot a_0, 0.131)$.

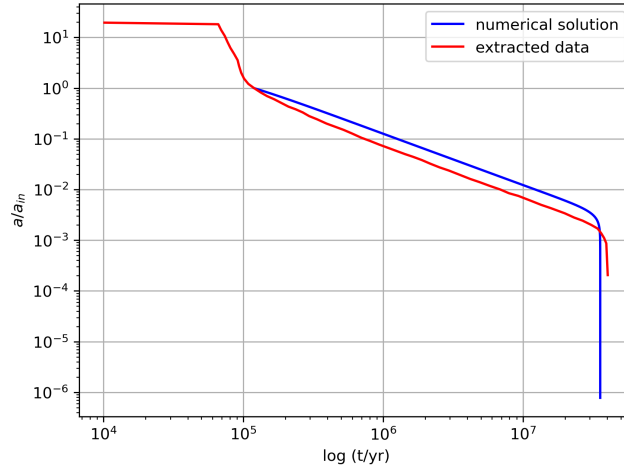


Figure 2.15

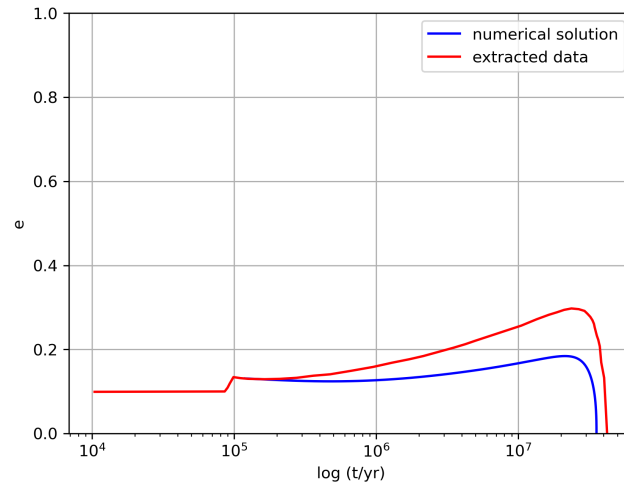


Figure 2.16

Figure 2.15 and 2.16 indicate a good agreement between our model and Sesana one. In the first plot a decreases more slowly than Sesana prediction as we are neglecting the bound cusp erosion contribute, which hardens the binary even when the unbound phase takes over at $\sim a_h$. On the other hand eccentricity reaches a lower peak compared to the reference model because of bound cusp erosion leads to e growth as well.

Furthermore, we test the feedback of the various shrinking mechanisms by assuming them working in isolation, hence suppressing all the others.

Figure 2.17 and 2.18 refers to the evolution under the effect of slingshot of unbound stars; as the initial separation is below a_h we can appreciate the expected linear decay of a and the overall eccentricity growth.

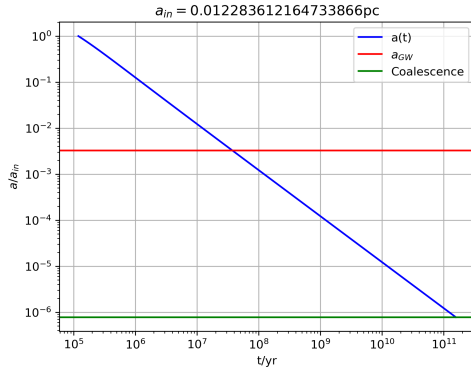


Figure 2.17

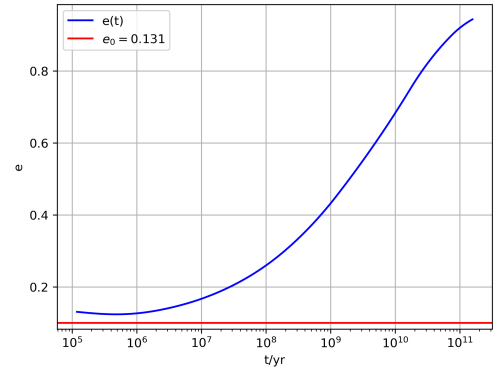


Figure 2.18

Figure 2.19 and 2.20 refers to the evolution under GWs production; this becomes effective only at very close separation and causes both the fast binary coalescence once effective and binary circularization. The coalescence time agrees perfectly to the theoretical prediction of Equation 1.139

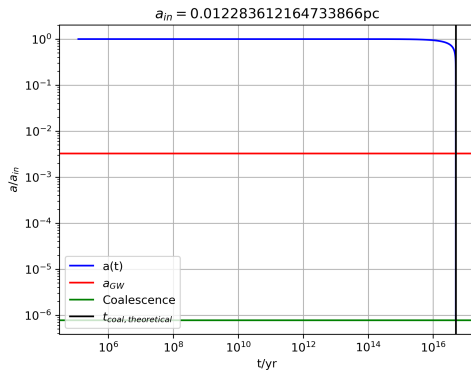


Figure 2.19

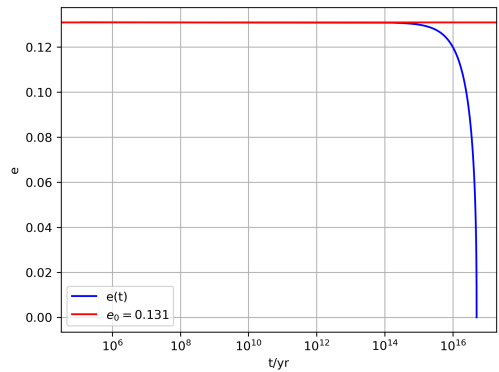


Figure 2.20

The dataset used above help us to construct another curve, precisely $(e(t, a(t)))$ which can be compared to the close form solution provided by Equation (1.136) as shown in Figure 2.21 and 2.22.

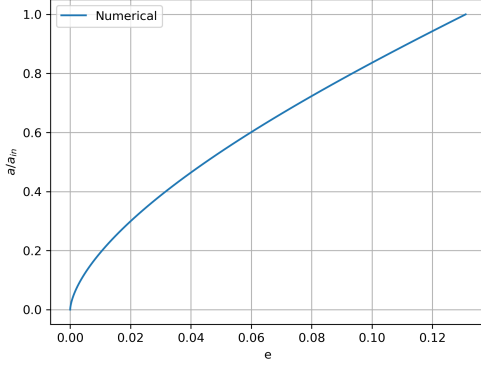


Figure 2.21

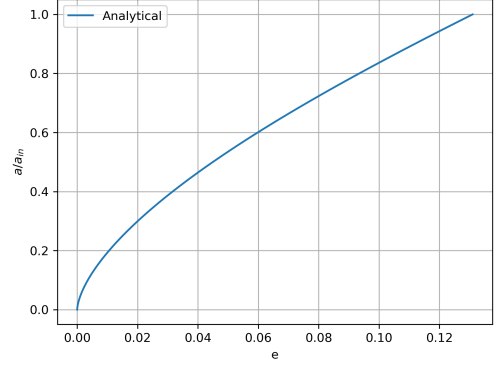


Figure 2.22

Below, the Figure 2.23 gives us the possibility of visualizing the relative error of the numerical solution with respect to the analytical one; it turns out to be within one part over 10^{12} .

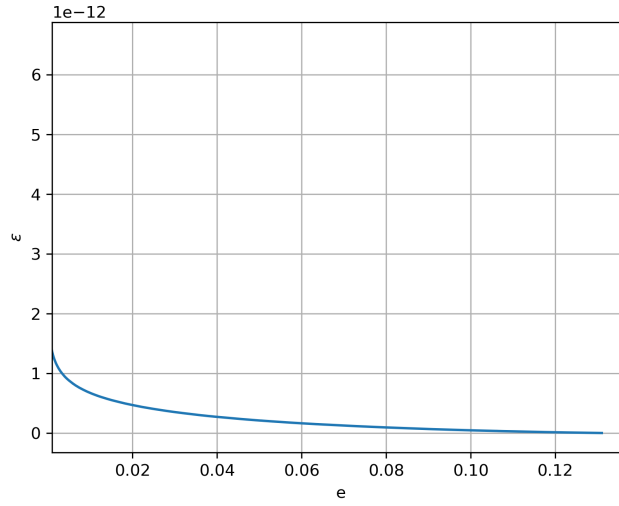


Figure 2.23

2.3 NGC 205 IMBH Binary evolution

2.3.1 NGC 205 Hybrid Model Evolution

NGC 205 is a nearby dwarf galaxy with a NSC residing at its innermost region; it is believed to host an IMBH binary, whose estimated mass is $\sim 10^4 M_\odot$.

The 2-D surface brightness profile of the dwarf, both the bulge and NSC treated as independent stellar components, is translated into 3-D Sersic density profile using Prugniel & Simien **Prugniel**:

$$\rho(r) = \rho_0 \left(\frac{r}{R_e} \right)^{-p} e^{-b \left(\frac{r}{R_e} \right)^{1/n}}. \quad (2.38)$$

Here, ρ_0 is the density normalization unambiguously set by total galaxy mass, effective radius and Sersic index n ; from **Terzic**:

$$\rho_0 = \frac{M_*}{4\pi R_e^3 n \Gamma[n(3-p)]} b^{n(3-p)}. \quad (2.39)$$

The parameters p and b can be expressed as a function of n as follows: $p = 1.0 - 0.6097/n + 0.05563/n^2$, and $b \approx 2n - 1/3 + 0.009876/n$, for $0.5 < n < 10$. Observations constrain the quantities (M, R_{eff}, n) for both bulge and NSC as reported in Figure (2.24) of Khan and Holley-Bockelmann 2021.

Component	n	$r_{\text{eff}}(\text{pc})$	M_* ($10^7 M_\odot$)	a_2/a_1
IMBH	–	0.14	0.004	–
NSC	1.6	1.3	0.18	0.95
Bulge	1.4	516	97.2	0.90

Figure 2.24: Column 1: Galaxy component. Column 2: Sersic index. Column 3: Effective radius of the galaxy component (note: for the IMBH, we quote the influence radius instead). Column 4: Stellar mass. Column 5: 2D axial ratio as measured by GALFIT.

It has (with standard substitution $Z = b \left(\frac{r}{R_e} \right)^{1/n}$)

$$M(< r) = 4\pi\rho_0 R_e^3 n b^{n(p-3)} \gamma \left[n(3-p), b \left(\frac{r}{R_e} \right)^{1/n} \right] = M_* \frac{\gamma \left[n(3-p), b \left(\frac{r}{R_e} \right)^{1/n} \right]}{\Gamma[n(3-p)]} \quad (2.40)$$

with

$$\Gamma(a) = \int_0^\infty dt e^{-t} t^{a-1} \quad (2.41)$$

the "Complete gamma function",

$$\Gamma(a, x) = \int_x^\infty dt e^{-t} t^{a-1} \quad (2.42)$$

the Upper incomplete gamma function and

$$\gamma(a, x) = \int_0^x dt e^{-t} t^{a-1} \quad (2.43)$$

the Lower incomplete gamma function. By definition follows:

$$\Gamma(a) = \Gamma(a, x) + \gamma(a, x) \quad (2.44)$$

The spatial distribution is spherical and untruncated but the mass profile converges to the finite value M_* , so the potential can be found from

$$\Phi(r) = \Phi(r_0) + \frac{GM(< r_0)}{r_0} - \frac{GM(< r)}{r} - 4\pi G \int_r^{r_0} dt t \rho(t) \quad (2.45)$$

Setting $r_0 \rightarrow \infty$ and $\Phi(r_0) = 0$, it becomes

$$\Phi(r) = -\frac{GM(< r)}{r} - 4\pi G \int_r^\infty dt t \rho(t) \quad (2.46)$$

and computation returns

$$\Phi(r) = -4\pi G \rho_0 R_e^2 n b^{n(p-2)} \left\{ \frac{b^{-n}}{r/R_e} \gamma[n(3-p), Z] + \Gamma[n(2-p), Z] \right\} \quad (2.47)$$

or equivalently

$$\Phi(r) = -\frac{GM_*}{r} \left\{ \frac{\gamma[n(3-p), Z]}{\Gamma[n(3-p)]} + Z^n \frac{\Gamma[n(2-p), Z]}{\Gamma[n(3-p)]} \right\} \quad (2.48)$$

Numerically it is found

- Bulge: $\rho_0 = 4.80 \cdot 10^5 M_\odot / pc^3$
- NSC: $\rho_0 = 2.95 M_\odot / pc^3$

and NGC 205 density profile is reconstructed in Figure (2.25).

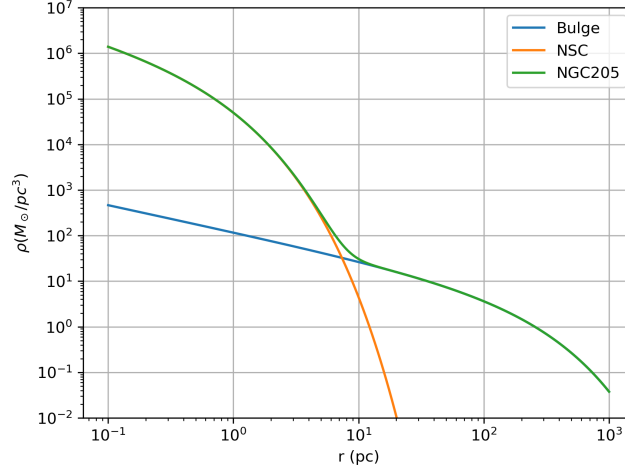


Figure 2.25: NGC 205 bulge, NSC and total mass density profile of stellar distribution.

Adopting the same prescription of Khan and Holley-Bockelmann 2021 and Holley-Bockelmann et al. 2025, a symmetric IMBH binary of masses $M_1 = M_2 = 4 \cdot 10^4 M_\odot$ is introduced into NGC 205 core and its evolution, due to stellar and GWs hardening, is tracked combining 3-body scattering experiment hybrid model Quinlan 1996, Sesana, Haardt, et al. 2006 and Peters and Mathews 1963 equations.

It is quite relevant to point out that in this astrophysical system the hardening due to bound stars Sesana, Haardt, et al. 2008 is negligible in light of the symmetry of the binary and the arguments exposed at the end of Sec.(1.4).

Therefore, combining the set of equations related to Unbound evolution

$$\frac{da}{dt}|_u = -\frac{a^2 G \rho_{\text{inf}}}{\sigma} H \quad (2.49)$$

$$\frac{de}{dt}|_u = \frac{a G \rho_{\text{inf}}}{\sigma} H K \quad (2.50)$$

and the equations describing GWs driven hardening 1.133 1.134, the set of differential equations must be solved reads

$$\frac{da}{dt} = \frac{da}{dt}|_u + \frac{da}{dt}|_{gw} \quad (2.51)$$

$$\frac{de}{dt} = \frac{de}{dt}|_u + \frac{de}{dt}|_{gw} \quad (2.52)$$

Although the original formulation of the hybrid model relies on a SIS profile, with very peculiar features (i.e. constant velocity dispersion), Sesana Sesana and Khan 2015 showed how to use it for a more general stellar background. The vast majority of stars, unbound to the binary, refilling the loss cone (i.e. having pericenter $\sim a$) come from a region that is just beyond the binary influence radius, hence r_{inf} is the relevant physical scale of the model and σ appearing in Equations 2.49 and 2.50, which is in general a function of the radius for spherically symmetric systems, must be computed at the influence radius (here defined as the radius enclosing stellar

mass that is twice the binary one).

Apart from setting the initial point in the (a, e) space, we need to determine several quantities; we start with binary influence radius and $\sigma_{inf} = \sigma(r_{inf})$; they both require the knowledge of the cumulative mass $M(< r)$ associated to the Sersic profile. It results from the integration of $\rho(r)$ and admits analytic solution **Terzic**

$$M(< R) = M_{\text{tot}} \frac{\gamma\left(2n, b_n \left(\frac{R}{R_e}\right)^{1/n}\right)}{\Gamma(2n)}. \quad (2.53)$$

The root of the equation

$$M(< r_{inf}) - 2(M_1 + M_2) = 0 \quad (2.54)$$

is obtained numerically by bisection and holds $r_{inf} = 0.47 pc$.

On the other hand, Jeans equation provides a way to compute the velocity dispersion and in case of spherical distributions it greatly simplifies to

$$\sigma^2(r) = \frac{1}{\rho(r)} \int_r^\infty \rho(s) \frac{GM(< s)}{s^2} ds. \quad (2.55)$$

The integral leads to $\sigma_{inf} = 32.6 \text{ km/s}$. As both $\sigma(r)$ and the circular speed $V_c(r) = \sqrt{GM(< r)/r}$ depend on $M(< r)$, previously obtained, we can derive them and Figure 2.26 displays their ratio as a function of the radius.

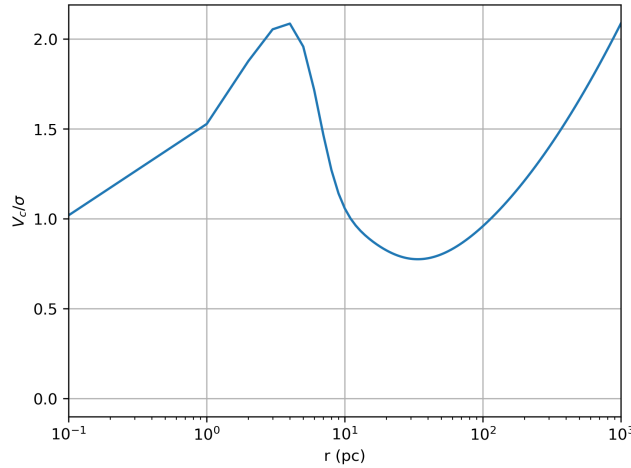


Figure 2.26: NGC 205 V_c/σ vs r

The last quantity we have to specify in order to implement the hybrid model is the binary hardening radius a_h ; indeed Sesana, Sesana, Haardt, et al. 2006 found out from 3-body scattering experiments that H and K functions can be fitted to

$$H = A(1 + a/a_0)^\gamma \quad (2.56)$$

and

$$K = A(1 + a/a_0)^\gamma + B \quad (2.57)$$

The parameters of the fits to H and J are listed in Tables 1 and 2 of Sesana, Haardt, et al. 2006 for different binary mass ratios and eccentricity; there, a_0 is given in a_h units, thus forcing us to determine it. In literature several definitions have been proposed; hereafter, we will be using

$$a_h \approx \frac{GM_2}{4\sigma^2}, \quad (2.58)$$

unless otherwise stated. This definition leads to $a_h \approx 0.04pc$.

We can finally proceed and numerically integrate the set of equations 2.51 and 2.52 by means of R-K(4). For the temporal evolution to be properly resolved from the initial configuration to the coalescence of the binary, the time step adjusts itself at each iteration, thus taking care of whether the dominant timescale is set by stellar hardening or GWs hardening at that time.

By defining

$$\Delta t_i = \epsilon \cdot \min \left(\frac{a}{|da/dt|_u}, \frac{a}{|da/dt|_{gw}} \right), \quad (2.59)$$

where $\epsilon \sim 10^{-3-4}$, and the initial conditions $(a_0, e_0) = (15pc, 0.7)$, the integration returns $a(t)$ and $e(t)$.

They are shown in Figure 2.27 and 2.28.

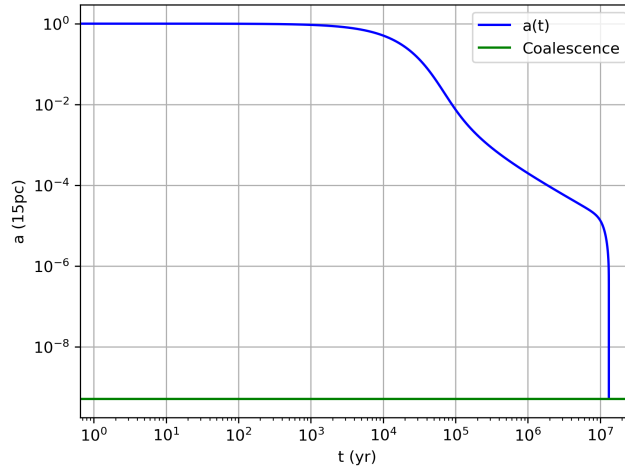


Figure 2.27: NGC 205 a vs t

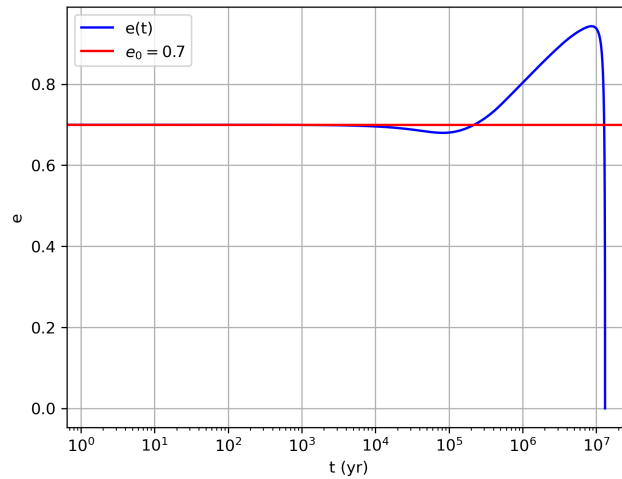


Figure 2.28: NGC 205 e vs t

The estimated coalescence time is $t_{coal} = 13.15 Myr$; it is of the same order of magnitude off Khan and Holley-Bockelmann 2021 and Holley-Bockelmann et al. 2025 predictions of $t_{coal} = 74 Myr$.

NOTE: Khan estimate comes from N-body simulations and in the special case of NGC 205 a constant value of eccentricity $e = 0.39$ is assumed for the late evolution of the binary.

Assuming a reliable time (universal time) at which the binary is in the configuration (a_0, e_0) it

might be interesting to get an estimate of the corresponding z_{coal} from

$$t(z) = \int_z^\infty \frac{dz'}{(1+z')H(z')} \quad (2.60)$$

and compare it with LISA upper limit ($z \sim 20$), hence addressing the problem of a possible detection.

If the binary is in the initial configuration at $z \approx 10$, it will coalesce at $z \approx 9.4$.

2.3.2 Cosmic Size Evolution Down to NGC 205

Here, we explore the importance of the existence of NSC to the binary evolution and coalescence time. A such structure is expected to drastically reduce the time taken by system to merge as a consequence of the larger number of stars capable of passing close to the binary.

In this spirit, we will be referring to the same parameters table a procedure of the prevois SubSection but the NSC which is artificially removed from the dwarf galaxy; hence, the only stellar background affecting binary evolution is the stellar bulge.

By repeating the same analysis and setting $(t_0, a_0, e_0) = (0yr, 15pc, 0.7)$, we show Figure 2.29 and 2.30.

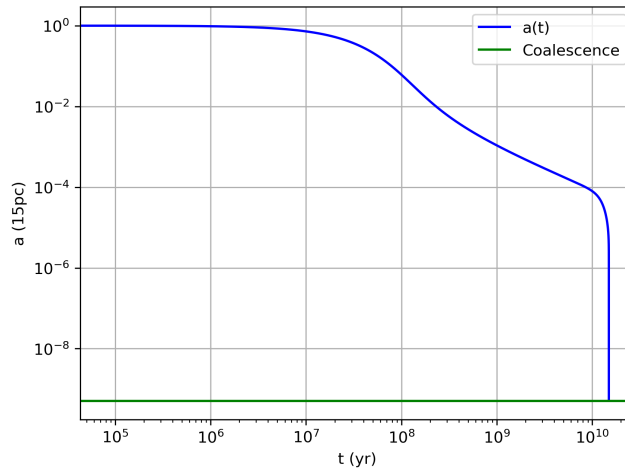


Figure 2.29

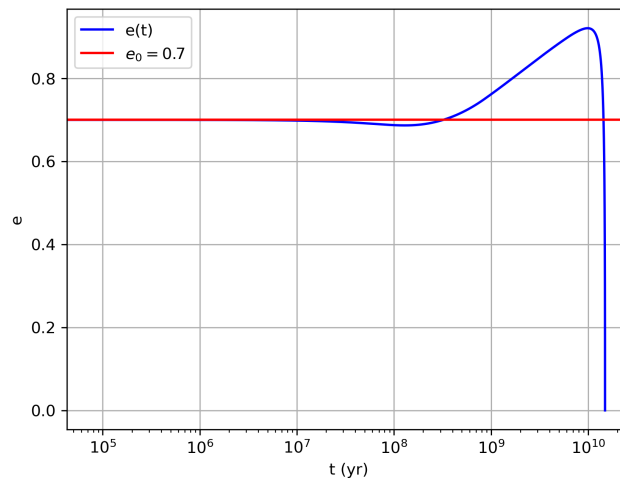


Figure 2.30

Now $t_{coal} = 14.93 Gyr$, almost three orders of magnitude longer than the NSC scenario. Following Ono cosmic size evolution relation $R_{eff}(z) = R_{eff}(z=0)(1+z)^{-1.22}$ Ono et al. 2023, we take NGC 205 as a $z=0$ reference model and we discuss the evolution of the same IMBH binary inside its plausible progenitors distributed between $z=1$ and $z=20$. All galaxies share same bulge mass and Sersic index; density profiles differ from each other only because of the different effective radius as displayed in Figure 2.31.

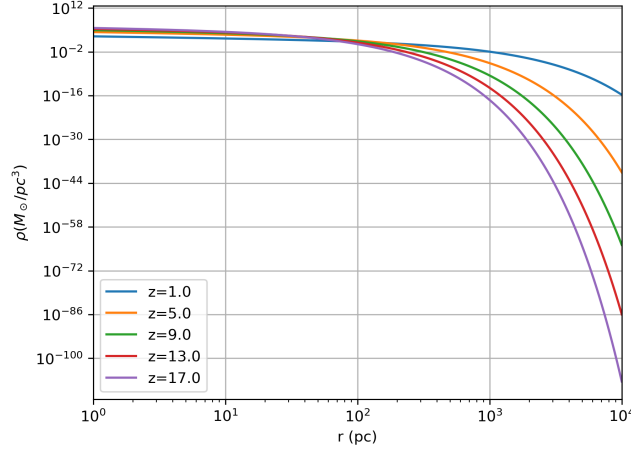


Figure 2.31

High redshift galaxies tend to be more compact than low redshift counterparts. Hardening radii are easily derived from these profiles according to Equation 2.58 and a comparison between different hosts H and K functions- see Figure 2.32 and 2.33- suggest that IMBH binary becomes "hard" at lower separation if embedded in a denser environment.

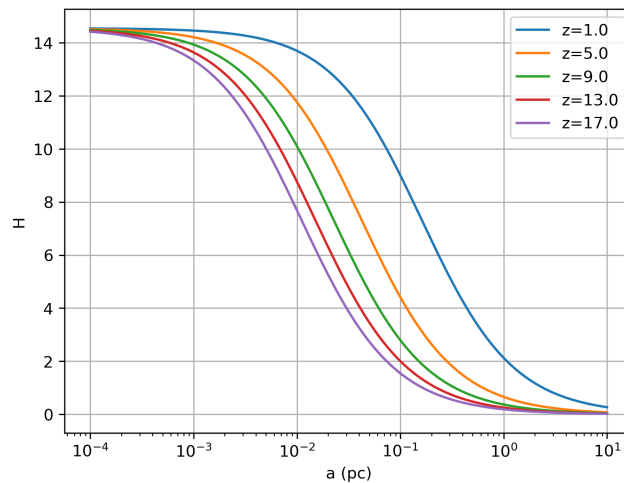


Figure 2.32

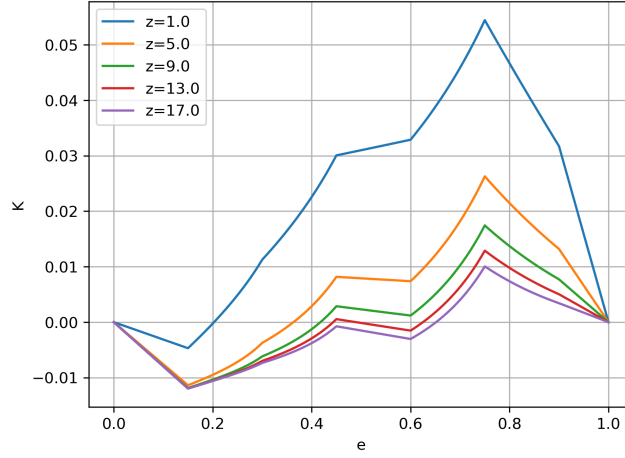


Figure 2.33: This family of functions is obtained evaluating $K(a, e)$ of each galaxy at their mean hardening radius.

We present in Figure 2.34 and 2.35 the evolutionary tracks of a sample of galaxies obtained by applying RK(4) to the Equations (2.51) and (2.52) and initial condition $(t, a_0, e_0) = (0 \text{ yr}, 15 \text{ pc}, 0.7)$.

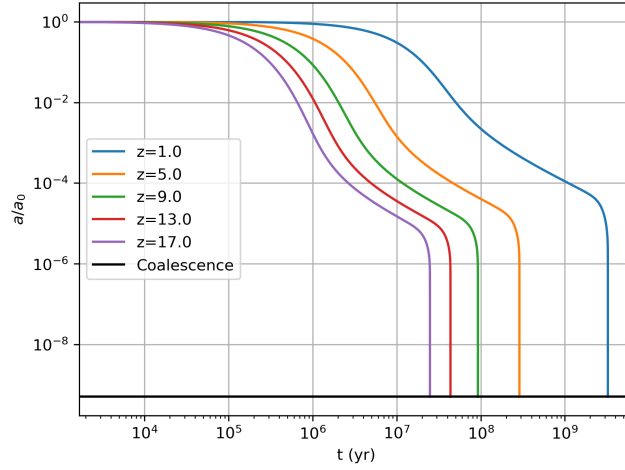


Figure 2.34

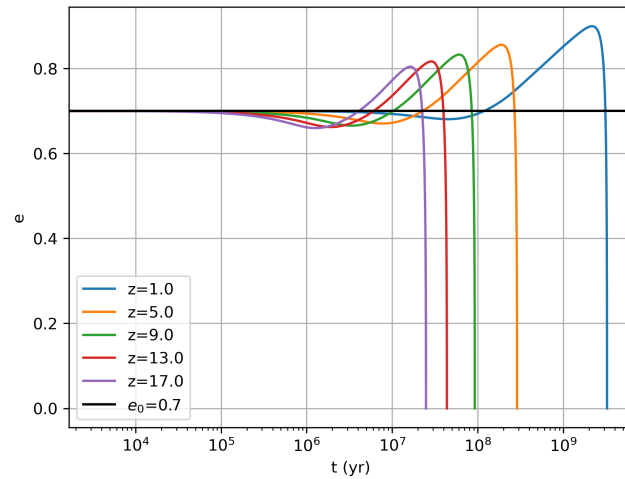


Figure 2.35

Table 2.1: Galaxies coalescence time grid (Gyr)

z	t_{coal} (Gyr)
1	3.24728387
2	1.334011
3	0.7072763
4	0.43164087
5	0.28805534
6	0.20450559
7	0.15193439
8	0.11686942
9	0.09240003
10	0.07469761
11	0.06150781
12	0.05143637
13	0.04358488
14	0.03735426
15	0.03233322
16	0.02823207
17	0.02484224
18	0.02201059
19	0.01962278
20	0.01759202

We note that higher compactness tends to compensate the effects of NSC removal in terms of the coalescence time.

Lastly, we modify the initial time t_0 of each run, turning it into $t(z)$, thus focusing on the possibility of coalescence within the present time and consequently a potential GWs observation.

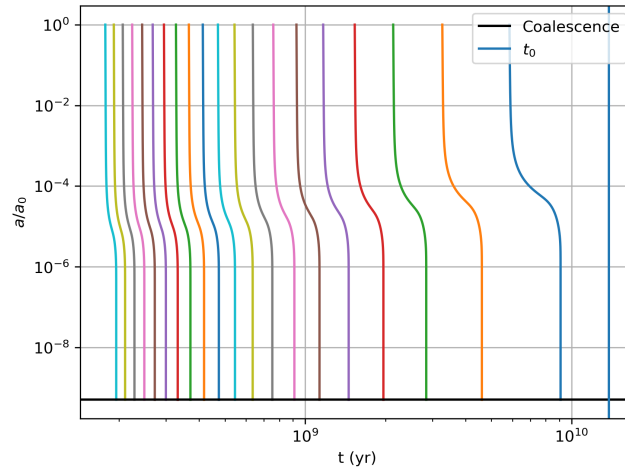


Figure 2.36

Therefore, forming in the past at $z > 0$, they all merge before the present time.

3

GENERATION OF INITIAL CONDITIONS FOR N-BODY STELLAR SYSTEMS

3.1 Dynamical Equilibrium of Stellar Systems

Galaxies are multi-component systems in dynamical equilibrium, where different stellar populations, gaseous phases, dust, and dark matter coexist. These environments host an enormous number of stars, typically ranging from 10^6 to 10^{11} , which makes it impossible to track the orbit of each individual object. Nevertheless, by abandoning the idea of characterizing the time evolution of each degree of freedom in the phase-space, a probabilistic description of the stellar population is still possible in terms of the one-particle DF as anticipated in Section 1.1.

As long as the stellar component is observed within t_{2b} , granularity is unimportant, collisions are negligible and stars can be described as particles moving in a smooth potential generated by a continuous mass density ρ , proxy of the actual stellar distribution. In this regime, when dealing with stars that are all identical to one another, the DF will be unique and will satisfy the Collisionless Boltzmann Equation (CBE). By denoting with $\mathbf{w}$ an arbitrary set of canonical coordinates of PS, this conservation equation descends from differentiating with respect to the time—along the orbits of the potential $\Phi(\mathbf{x}, t)$ associated to $\rho(\mathbf{x}, t)$ —of the normalization condition

$$\int_{\mathbb{R}^6} d\mathbf{w} f(\mathbf{w}) = 1. \quad (3.1)$$

By extending the Lagrangian derivative notion D/Dt to the coordinates of the phase-space, the CBE reads:

$$\frac{Df}{Dt} = \frac{\partial f}{\partial t} + \dot{\mathbf{w}} \cdot \frac{\partial f}{\partial \mathbf{w}} = \frac{\partial f}{\partial t} + [f, H] = 0, \quad (3.2)$$

where the square bracket indicates the Poisson bracket, which is defined as

$$[f, H] = \sum_i \left(\frac{\partial f}{\partial q_i} \frac{\partial H}{\partial p_i} - \frac{\partial f}{\partial p_i} \frac{\partial H}{\partial q_i} \right), \quad (3.3)$$

and H is the Hamiltonian function of the system.

The arbitrariness of the canonical coordinates $\mathbf{w}$ enables us to specialize Equation (3.2) to the inertial Cartesian coordinates $(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{v})$. With this choice, the Hamiltonian becomes

$$H(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{v}, t) = \frac{1}{2}v^2 + \Phi(\mathbf{x}, t) \quad (3.4)$$

and the CBE turns into

$$\frac{\partial f}{\partial t} + \mathbf{v} \cdot \frac{\partial f}{\partial \mathbf{x}} - \frac{\partial \Phi}{\partial \mathbf{x}} \cdot \frac{\partial f}{\partial \mathbf{v}} = 0. \quad (3.5)$$

Being interested in studying the equilibrium condition of galaxies and in particular of spherically symmetric models, it is useful the following definition: a dynamical system is said to be stationary if $\partial f / \partial t = 0$. Therefore, collisionless systems that have achieved equilibrium will be provided of a DF obeying to the steady-state CBE

$$\frac{Df}{Dt} = \dot{\mathbf{w}} \cdot \frac{\partial f}{\partial \mathbf{w}} = [f, H] = 0. \quad (3.6)$$

Noteworthy, for this condition to apply it is sufficient to have a steady-state potential $\Phi(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{v})$. Solutions to Equation (3.6) are referred to as integrals of motion. Specifically, the function $I(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{v})$ is an integral of motion for the potential $\Phi(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{v})$ if it satisfies

$$\frac{D}{Dt}[I(\mathbf{x}(t), \mathbf{v}(t))] = 0 \quad (3.7)$$

along any orbit of the potential and a relevant example is represented by the Hamiltonian itself of the system, provided

$$[H, H] = 0. \quad (3.8)$$

The comparison between Equation (3.7) and Equation (3.6) reveals that solving the steady-state CBE is equivalent to being an integral of motion; this leads to the formulation of the Jeans theorem.

Jeans Theorem. – *Any steady-state solution of the collisionless Boltzmann equation depends on the phase-space coordinates only through integrals of motion in the given potential, and any function of the integrals yields a steady-state solution of the collisionless Boltzmann equation.*

The remaining quantities to be defined, which correspond to observables that can be inferred from kinematic measurements, are the first- and second-order velocity moments of the distribution function. These are

$$\overline{v_i}(\mathbf{x}, t) \equiv \frac{1}{\rho(\mathbf{x}, t)} \int_{\mathbb{R}^6} d^3\mathbf{v} f v_i \quad (3.9)$$

and

$$\sigma_{ij}^2(\mathbf{x}, t) \equiv \frac{1}{\rho(\mathbf{x}, t)} \int_{\mathbb{R}^6} d^3\mathbf{v} f (v_i - \overline{v_i})(v_j - \overline{v_j}) = \overline{v_i v_j} - \overline{v_i} \overline{v_j}, \quad (3.10)$$

respectively the mean velocity and the velocity dispersion tensor.

We are now finally in a position to recall the most peculiar kinematical properties of an important subclass of equilibrium models, namely Ergodic systems. The Jeans Theorem imposes that the DF f of systems at equilibrium will be any non-negative function of H ; in case f depends on H only, i.e. $f = f(H)$, then systems with this type of DF are said Ergodic.

Let us focus on first-order moment of the DF. In the inertial Cartesian frame where stars move under the action of a steady-state potential $\Phi(\mathbf{x})$, the Hamiltonian of the system is an even function of $\mathbf{v}$, causing $\overline{v_x}(\mathbf{x}) = \overline{v_y}(\mathbf{x}) = \overline{v_z}(\mathbf{x})$ to vanish.

Similarly, it can be demonstrated that the velocity-dispersion tensor is isotropic; thus it holds

$$\sigma_{ij}^2(\mathbf{x}) = \sigma^2(\mathbf{x}) \delta_{ij} = \delta_{ij} \frac{4\pi}{3\rho(\mathbf{x})} \int_0^{+\infty} dv v^4 f \left(\frac{1}{2} v^2 + \Phi(\mathbf{x}) \right) \quad (3.11)$$

Therefore, every system characterized by an ergodic DF is isotropic. In the next Section, the properties of the generated steady-state isotropic stellar distributions will be presented and

compared with the theoretical predictions summarized above.

So far, we have been concerned with the velocity-moments of the distribution function of Ergodic systems; however, the generation of initial conditions (ICs) for N-body, equilibrium models relies on the correct sampling of the DF itself. Recovering it from ρ for globally isotropic stellar systems can be done by means of the Eddington's formula

$$f(\varepsilon) = \frac{1}{\sqrt{8\pi^2}} \frac{d}{d\varepsilon} \int_{\varepsilon_t}^{\varepsilon} \frac{d\rho}{d\Psi} \frac{d\Psi}{\sqrt{\varepsilon - \Psi}} \quad (3.12)$$

with $\varepsilon = -H$ and $\Psi = -\Phi$ being the relative energy and potential respectively and ε_t the truncation energy of the system.

Finally, the last tool introduced in this Section is the virial ratio, closely connected with the Virial theorem, which provides a fast diagnostic for determining whether the generated model is in equilibrium or is either evolving toward collapse or expansion. By definition a self-gravitating system, constituted by N particles, with total kinetic energy

$$K = \sum_{i=1}^N \frac{1}{2} m_i v_i^2 \quad (3.13)$$

and gravitational potential energy

$$U = -\frac{1}{2} \sum_{i=1}^N \sum_{j \neq i} \frac{G m_i m_j}{|\mathbf{x}_i - \mathbf{x}_j|} \quad (3.14)$$

is virialized if it holds

$$2K' + U = 0 \quad \forall t \quad (3.15)$$

in the barycentric inertial reference system S_{CM} . For these systems the virial ratio

$$Q \equiv \frac{2K'}{|U|} \quad (3.16)$$

should be close to unity. In presence of a non vanishing velocity of the system center of mass, which flags that the time evolution is studied in a frame S moving with respect to S_{CM} , Equation (3.16) must be adjusted as follows:

$$Q \equiv \frac{2(K - K_{CM})}{|U|}. \quad (3.17)$$

3.2 OpOpGadget and Galaxy Modeling

Once recasted the main aspects of the theory underlying the dynamical equilibrium configuration of stellar systems, with focus on Ergodic DFs, we can now address the problem of generative N-body ICs for stellar populations which are compatible with the inferred quantities: total mass, density profile and associated structural parameters.

Therefore, stellar positions and velocities are generated by means of **OpOpGadget**. This Python module offers a number of tools for both generating N-body ICs and analyzing N-body simulations outputs. OpOpGadget is equipped with an extensive library of analytic models for spherically symmetric stellar distributions. The first step in the workflow initialization is to specify the desired model, assign the values of the parameters appearing in its functional form,

and choose the number of particles to represent the stellar environment. Then, particles spherical coordinates are assigned by randomly picked the cumulative mass profile

$$M_*(< r) = 4\pi \int_0^r dy y^2 \rho(y) \quad (3.18)$$

through the variable $u = np.random.uniform(M_{min} = 0, M_{max} = M_*, N)$. Because $M(< r)$ is a monotonically increasing function of radius, it can be inverted so that N radii of kind $r = M_*^{-1}(u)$ are finally obtained. Yet, two additional independent random variables, uniformly distributed in the intervals $[-1, 1]$ and $[0, 2\pi]$ respectively, are used to sample the direction cosine and the azimuthal angle, thereby obtaining N sets of spherical coordinates (r, θ, ϕ) , which are subsequently transformed into Cartesian coordinates.

While particle positions are drawn from the cumulative mass distribution, the velocity components are obtained by sampling the DF, assuming that the gravitational potential Φ is generated by the mass distribution associated with the previously initialized particles. Three random numbers $\mathbf{v}$ lying in the range $[-1, 1]$ allows to temporary assign a normalized velocity to each particle, which will found to have the binding energy $\varepsilon = \Psi(1 - v^2)$. Finally, the Von Neumann rejection method is implemented and the normalized velocity is accepted if

$$u \leq \frac{f(\varepsilon)}{f(\varepsilon = \Psi)}, \quad (3.19)$$

where u is another independent random number in $[0, 1]$. If the Inequality (3.19) is true, the final velocity vector will be obtained by taking the product between the normalized one and the factor $\sqrt{2\Psi}$. At the end of the process, each particle will have its own *ID*, mass $m = M_*/N$, position $\mathbf{x}$ and $\mathbf{v}$.

Let us denote with p the variable containing all this information, OpOpGadget provides already-implemented methods to this objects and the most relevant are:

- ***NbodyModel***: generates a spherically symmetric, multi-component, equilibrium model as mentioned above
- ***Analysis(NbodyModel)***: takes as argument an *NbodyModel* object and is furnished with the following methods, used in our analysis:

1. ***Analysis.com()***: returns Cartesian and velocity of *NbodyModel*
2. ***Analysis.softening_scale(kernel=Gadget)***: calculates the softening scale ϵ using the spline kernel of Gadget2 (Springel 2005). This softening replaces the Dirac delta function in $\rho(r) = m\delta(r)$ with the normalized spline kernel

$$W(r, h) = \begin{cases} 1 - 6q^2 + 6q^3 & \text{if } 0 \leq q < 1/2 \\ 2(1 - q)^3 & \text{if } 1/2 \leq q < 1, \\ 0 & \text{if } q \geq 1. \end{cases} \quad q \equiv \frac{r}{h}, \quad (3.20)$$

having a compact support which extends to $h = 2.8\epsilon$, beyond which the gravitational potential reverts to the standard Newtonian form.

3. ***Analysis.tdyn(mq=50)***: provides the dynamical time of *NbodyModel* as $T_{dyn} = 0.5\pi\sqrt{R_h^3/(GM_h)}$, where R_h is the radius that contains the fraction $M_h = M_* \cdot mq\%$. This estimate has been corrected to make it compatible with the adopted definition of dynamical time t_{dyn} at half-mass radius r_{half} , which is

$$t_{dyn} = \frac{1}{\sqrt{G\bar{\rho}}} \quad (3.21)$$

with $\bar{\rho}$ being, for a spherical system,

$$\bar{\rho} = \frac{M/2}{\frac{4}{3}\pi r_{half}^3}. \quad (3.22)$$

- ***Profile(NbodyModel, xmin, xmax)***: has two methods that allows to reproduce between $xmin$ and $xmax$ the radial profile of relevant quantities:

1. ***Profile.dens()***: outputs both the radial and density grids
2. ***Profile.mass()***: outputs both the radial and cumulative mass grids

The dwarf galaxies, along with their nuclear star clusters, that have been generated are the same as those studied within the Sesana (2010) hybrid model framework. The comparison between the results of this semi-analytical, shown in Section (?), and the numerical merger simulations is intended to assess whether a model based on an already-formed binary black hole embedded in a single galaxy can effectively capture the properties that, in our case, emerge self-consistently from the full merger process.

In Khan and Holley-Bockelmann (2021), galaxies bulge and NSCs density profiles are expressed in terms of a Sersic profile with de-projection formula analyzed by **Prugniel** and reported in Equation (2.38). Nevertheless, the Sersic analytic model implemented in OpOpGadget takes as a reference Lima Neto et al. (1999) de-projection

$$\rho(r) = \rho_0 \left(\frac{r}{a}\right)^{-p} e^{-(r/a)^\nu}, \quad (3.23)$$

where $\nu = n^{-1}$, the inverse of the Sersic index, and a , denoting the Sersic profile scalelength at which the surface density $\Sigma(a) = \Sigma_0$, are known as primary parameters. Therefore, it is evident that the same density distribution can be described through different combinations of independent parameters and a proper conversion between primary and secondary, i.e. depending on primary ones, is required before continuing. Here, to pass from a to R_{eff} , we need to use the following analytical approximation

$$\ln R_{eff}/a = \frac{0.6950 - \ln \nu}{\nu} - 0.1789. \quad (3.24)$$

Moreover, particular attention should be paid to the fact that the stellar particles to be initialized are required to be in dynamical equilibrium within the combined gravitational potential of both stars and central black hole. The presence of such a massive and compact object is expected to modify the equilibrium configuration of the stars with respect to the isolated case, primarily by increasing their velocity dispersion; this can be done by passing a Python list of OpOpGadget analytic models to NbdoyModel. Despite being a single object rather than a particles distribution, a given model can be realized even with just one particle and the adopted one for generating BHs is the Plummer sphere. According to this choice, density and cumulative mass are respectively

$$\rho(r) = \frac{3M}{4\pi a^3} \left(1 + \frac{r^2}{a^2}\right)^{-5/2} \quad (3.25)$$

and

$$M(< r) = M \frac{r^3}{(r^2 + a^2)^{3/2}}; \quad (3.26)$$

here, a is the Plummer scalelength and is linked to the half-mass radius $r_{1/2}$ of the distribution by

$$a \simeq 0.766 r_{1/2}. \quad (3.27)$$

The use of gravitational softening in N-body experiments sets an intrinsic spatial resolution scale, below which the system cannot be accurately resolved. Accordingly, the Plummer scale radius a is taken to be the mean interparticle distance at the half-mass radius r_h

$$\lambda = r_h \left(\frac{2}{N} \right)^{1/3}, \quad (3.28)$$

which serves as a proxy for the gravitational softening length of the galaxy prior to its generation. Finally, Equation (2.45) shows that the Plummer potential

$$\Phi(r) = -\frac{GM}{\sqrt{r^2 + a^2}} \quad (3.29)$$

reduces to the Keplerian form at distances much larger than the scale radius, $r \gg a$. This asymptotic behavior explains why the Plummer model is a convenient description of BHs.

3.3 Analysis of the Generated Initial Conditions

3.3.1 NCG 205 N-body Initial Conditions

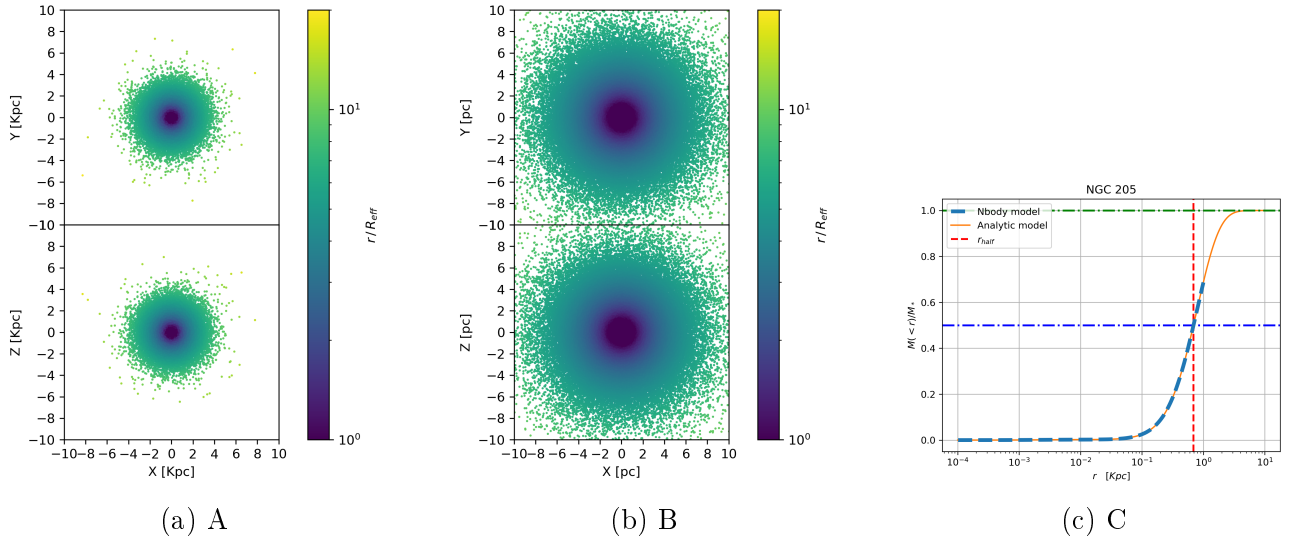


Figure 3.1: aaa

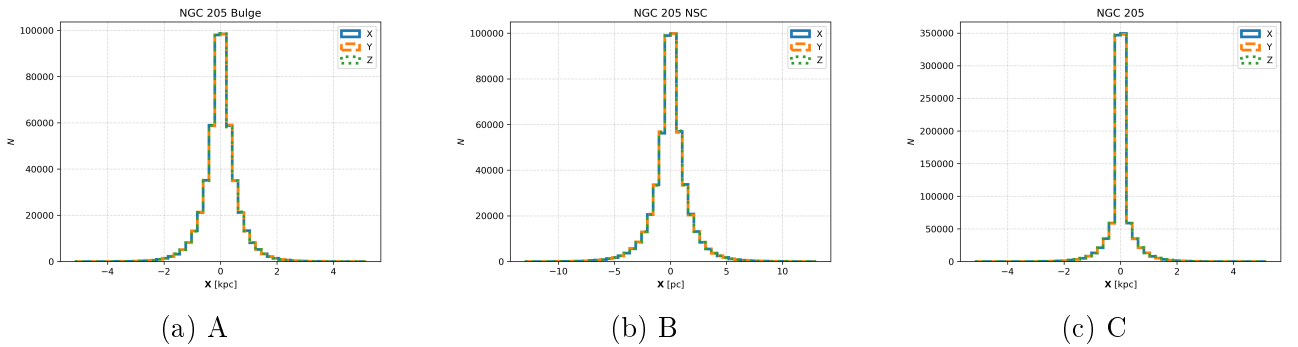


Figure 3.2: aaa

COM data:

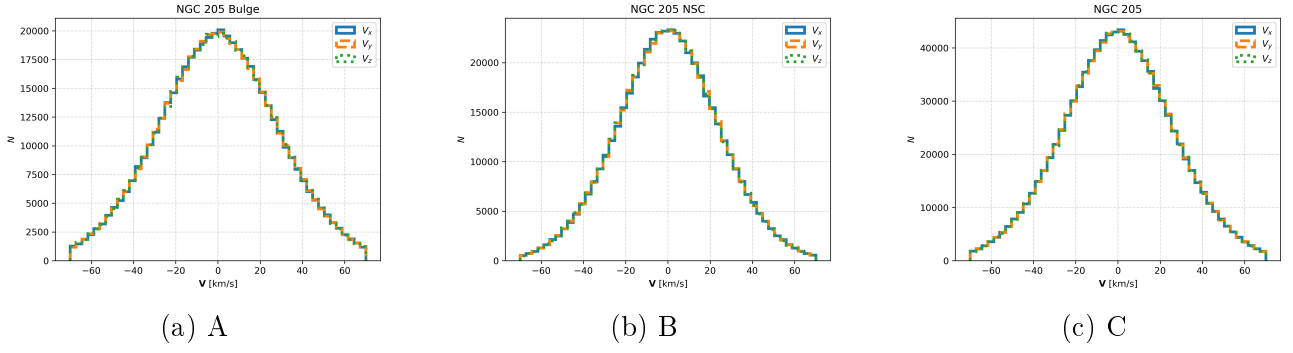


Figure 3.3: aaa

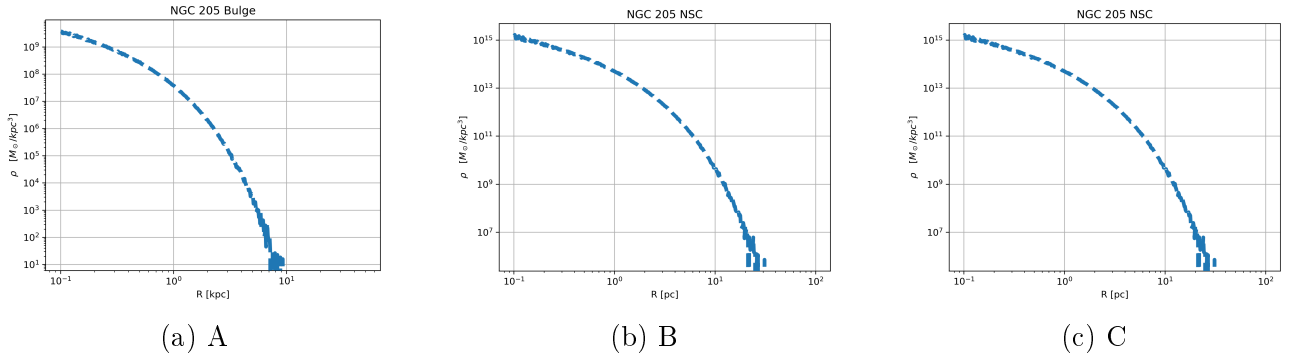


Figure 3.4: aaa

- position:
- velocity:

Numerically is found $r_{half} = \dots = R_{eff}$.

Yet, we get $t_{dyn} = \dots$, which agrees within $x\%$ the estimate obtained from the Analysis tool provided by OpOpgadget, which measures this quantity directly from the generated model. Waiting for evolution with Ketju.

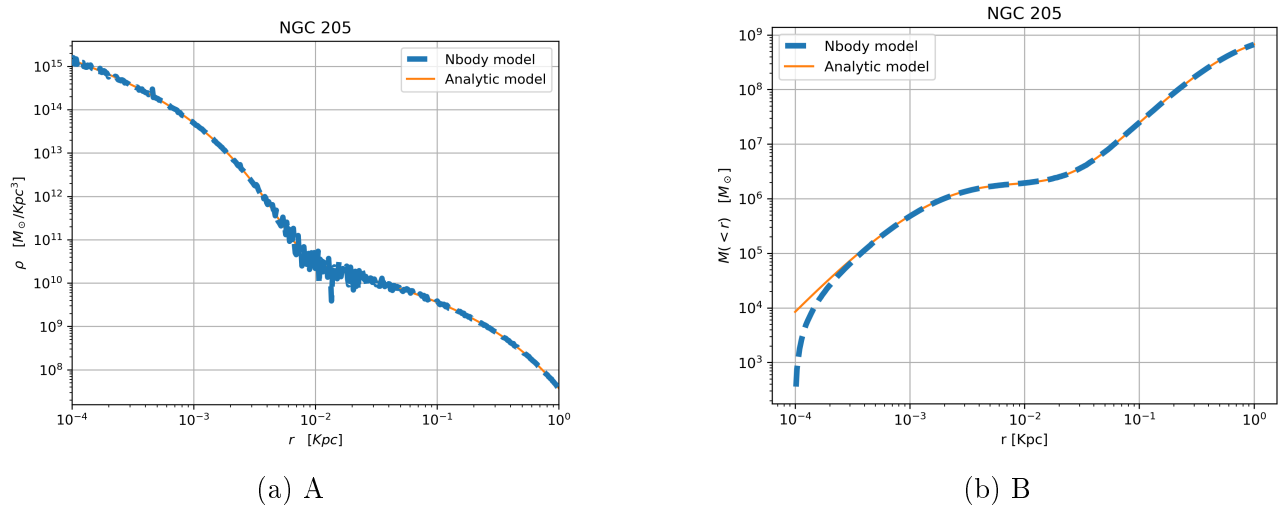


Figure 3.5: aaa

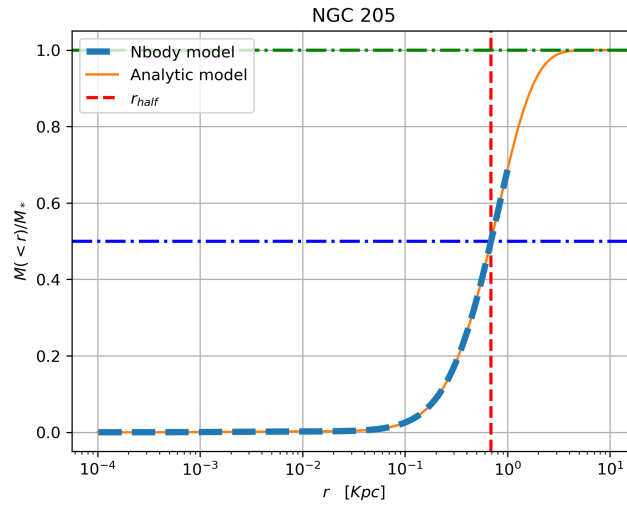


Figure 3.6: aaa

3.3.2 NCG 5206 N-body Initial Conditions

3.4 Ketju Numerical Simulations

Things done:

- created double galaxy
- modified BHs position and velocity
- modified their position and velocity according to Nipoti paper (r_{90})
- built Hists to check position and velocity distribution
- verified dyn equilibrium
- computed the softening length in several ways
- computed dyn time
- ketju run
- BHs analysis with ketju-utils
- snapshot analysis with OpOpgadget
- method of shrinking spheres to get the density peak position

A
PHYSICS EQUATION

B

NUMERICAL METHODS

2.1 Runge-Kutta (4)

Given the first order autonomous ODE

$$\frac{du}{dt} = f(u), \quad (\text{B.1})$$

the stability anylisis of RK (4) applied to this equation leads to the following stability criterion on the time step size when $f(u) = au$:

$$\Delta t \leq \frac{2.79}{|a|}. \quad (\text{B.2})$$

A system of first order autonomous ODEs can be written in vectorial form as:

$$\mathbf{u}' = \mathbf{f}(\mathbf{u}). \quad (\text{B.3})$$

At linear order, the stability analysis we are allowed to perform the stability analysis to the linearized system

$$\delta \mathbf{u}' = \mathbf{J} \delta \mathbf{u}, \quad (\text{B.4})$$

where λ_i is the i-th eigenvalue of the jacobian matrix $\mathbf{J} = \partial \mathbf{f} / \partial \mathbf{u}$.
In the eigenvectors frame, equations look like

$$\delta u'_i = \lambda_i \delta u_i \quad \forall i = 1, N \quad (\text{B.5})$$

and according to Equation (B.2), one would get

$$\Delta t_i \leq \frac{2.79}{|\lambda_i|} \quad \forall i = 1, N. \quad (\text{B.6})$$

Therefore, for a system of N Equations, a proper choice of the time step should be

$$\Delta t = \epsilon \cdot \min \left\{ \frac{2.79}{|\lambda_i|} \right\} \quad \forall i = 1, N \quad (\text{B.7})$$

with $\epsilon \leq 1$.

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